



Imputation of Incomplete Multilevel Data with R

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Abstract

The analysis of multilevel data requires careful attention when some measures are missing. A common strategy is to use imputation and replace missing values with one or more plausible values. The resulting datasets can then be analyzed using standard software packages. Although numerous methods for multiple imputation have been proposed, software implementations for multilevel data are still relatively scarce.

In this tutorial, we introduce the key challenges of dealing with (incomplete) multilevel data and illustrate how to impute them using the R package **mice**. We explain how clustering can be effectively addressed and describe methods for handling non-ignorable missingness mechanisms. To make it easier to use the proposed methods, we provide code snippets and relevant example data for three case studies.

First, we estimate the association between the pupils' sex and their popularity score in data on 2000 pupils' popularity in 100 schools. Second, we estimate the prognostic value of Computerized Tomography on 6-month mortality in data on 11,002 patients across 15 studies on traumatic brain injuries with data Missing At Random. Third, we estimate the association between family obesity and BMI in data on 2,111 patients from 5 regions with data Missing Not At Random.

Keywords: missing data, multilevel, clustering, **mice**, R.

1. Introduction

Missing data frequently occurs in observational studies, and to a lesser extent in experimental studies, like Randomized Controlled Trials (RCTs). Dealing with incomplete, requires careful consideration, not only of assumptions about the cause of the missing data, but also of those intrinsic to the main analysis of the study. This is necessary to prevent biased estimates and reduced statistical power, which could ultimately lead in the end to erroneous study conclusions.

Many studies are based on inherently clustered data. For example, RCTs and observational studies often involve patients sampled from multiple sites, such as countries or counties. Electronic Health Records datasets frequently collect information from multiple hospitals, and some studies even rely on aggregate data from multiple studies, such as Individual Participant Data (IPD).

Commonly, these studies face two simultaneous challenges: 1) the cluster structure and 2) missing data. The observations within clusters are not independent, which requires the use of multilevel modeling techniques in the main analysis to account for the hierarchical structure within the data. This structure must also be considered when dealing with missing data, as several imputation methods are based on models with implicit assumptions. Therefore, we will briefly explain the concepts of both cluster structure and missing data, and discuss why their presence can be problematic.

This manuscript serves as a tutorial for imputing incomplete multilevel data using the **mice** (Multivariate Imputation by Chained Equations) package in R. **mice** has emerged as the de facto standard for imputation via chained equations, which addresses missingness iteratively on a variable-by-variable basis. It is recognized for producing valid inferences across a range of missing data scenarios (Van Buuren 2018).

We provide a practical guide and code snippets for various missing data scenarios, encompassing non-ignorable mechanisms. Through three case studies from the fields of social and biomedical sciences, we demonstrate the practical use of software tools for this purpose. For brevity, our focus lies exclusively on multilevel imputation via chained equations with **mice**; other imputation methods and packages (e.g., **jomo** Grund, Lüdtke, and Robitzsch (2018), **smcfcs** Bartlett, Keogh, and Bonneville (2022), **mdmb** Grund, Lüdtke, and Robitzsch (2021)) fall beyond the scope of this tutorial. We only consider hierarchical data with two levels, and we also assume basic familiarity with the notation for the hierarchical models in the R packages **lme4** Bates, Maechler, Bolker [aut, cre, Walker, Christensen, Singmann, Dai, Scheipl, Grothendieck, Green, Fox, Bauer, and copyright on simulate.formula) (2022) and **nlme** Pinheiro, Bates, DebRoy, Sarkar, and Heisterkamp (2023).

1.1. Motivating datasets

We illustrate imputation of incomplete multilevel data using three case studies:

- Individual participant data of patients suffering from traumatic brain injury (**impact**) retrieved from the **metamisc** package Debray and de Jong (2021) (empirical data on traumatic brain injuries, $n = 11,022$ patients across $N = 15$ studies with data that are MAR);

- Hox pupil popularity data with missing popularity scores (`popmis`) from the **mice** package [van Buuren and Groothuis-Oudshoorn \(2021\)](#) (simulated data on perceived popularity, $n = 2,000$ pupils across $N = 100$ schools with data that are MAR);
- Data from an obesity survey across different sites (`obesity`) retrieved from the **micemd** package [Audigier and Resche-Rigon \(2023\)](#) (simulated data on obesity, $n = 2,111$ patients across $N = 5$ regions with data that are MNAR).

For each of these datasets, we guide the user through a simplified imputation workflow, highlighting the technical aspects of a chosen imputation strategy. The selection of the strategy is based on the nature of the missing data,

1.2. Concepts in multilevel data

Many datasets include individuals that are clustered together, for example in geographic regions, or different studies. In the simplest case, individuals (e.g., students) are nested within a single level of cluster (e.g., school classes). More complex clustered structures may occur when there are multiple hierarchical levels (e.g., students in classes in different schools or patients in hospitals in regions across countries), or when the clustering is non-nested (e.g., electronic health record data from diverse settings and populations within large databases).

With clustered data we generally assume that individuals from the same cluster tend to be more similar than individuals from other clusters. In statistical terms, this implies that observations from the same cluster are not independent and may, in fact, be correlated. If this correlation is left unaddressed, estimates of p -values, confidence intervals, and model parameters are prone to bias ([Localio, Berlin, Ten Have, and Kimmel 2001](#)). Statistical methods for clustered data typically adopt hierarchical models that explicitly describe the grouping of observations. These models are also known as ‘multilevel models’, ‘hierarchical models’, ‘mixed effect models’, ‘random effect models’, and in the context of time-to-event data as ‘frailty models’. [Box ??](#) provides an overview of multilevel data and [Box ??](#) provides an overview of some key concepts in multilevel modeling.

Box 1: Hierarchical data

Data are grouped into clusters at different levels, observations belonging to the same cluster are expected to share certain characteristics. We can specify:

- **Sample units:** units of the population from which measurements are taken in a sample, e.g., student or patient.
- **Cluster:** variable that specify the cluster or grouping, e.g., classroom or hospital.
- **Level-1 variable:** variable that varies within a cluster, e.g., test score.
- **Level-2 variable:** variable that does not vary within a cluster but between clusters, e.g., teacher experience or geographical region of the hospital.

Box 2: Hierarchical model

A hierarchical (multilevel) model is a statistical model appropriate for situations where observations are organized at more than one level (e.g., groups). This type of model rec-

ognizes and explicitly accounts for the potential correlation of observations within these groupings, addressing the dependencies that often violate the independence assumption between observation of traditional regression models. To achieve this, hierarchical models may incorporate fixed or random effects:

- **Fixed effect:** Also called a common effect is an effect that is assumed to be constant across all sample units, e.g., gender effect that is the same for all classes or hospitals.
- **Random effect:** Effects that are a source of random variation in the data, and whose levels are sampled from a distribution. e.g., the test score may vary between classrooms or hospitals due to uncontrolled factors such as the teacher experience or quality of hospital protocols.

In R, hierarchical models can be fitted using packages such as **lme4** Bates *et al.* (2022) or **nlme** Pinheiro *et al.* (2023). In addition to random intercepts, multilevel models can also include random slopes and heterogeneous residual variances across clusters (see e.g., Gelman and Hill (2006); Hox, Moerbeek, and van de Schoot (2017); de Jong, Moons, Eijkemans, Riley, and Debray (2021)).

The variability due to clustering is often measured by the **intraclass correlation (ICC)**, which in simple terms describes how similar the units in the same cluster are.

1.3. Concepts in missing data

In a study, any variable can have missing values, including those in the main model, such as exposures, outcomes, and confounders, as well on other variables, such as **auxiliary** variables, which, although not explicitly in the analysis model, can improve the imputation of missing values.

These incomplete variables can be categorized by a **missingness pattern** that describes how observed and missing values are arranged in the dataset. There are different types of missing patterns such as univariate, monotone, and file matching Van Buuren (2018) (§ 4.1). Specifically for clustered data, we highlight the difference between sporadic and systematic patterns. Sporadic missingness arises when variables are missing for some but not all of the units in a cluster Jolani (2018). For example, it is possible that test results are missing for several students in one or more classes. When all observations are missing within one or more clusters, data are said to be systematically missing. These missingness patterns are visualized in Figure 1, where the column X_1 is completely observed, column X_2 is systematically missing in cluster 2, and column X_3 is sporadically missing.

To analyze these incomplete data, we have to take the nature of the missingness and the cluster structure into account. For example, the sporadic missingness in X_3 could be easily amended if this would be a level-2 variable (and thus constant within clusters). We could then extrapolate the true (but missing) value of X_3 for unit 1 from unit 2, and the value for unit 4 from unit 3. If X_3 would instead be a level-1 variable (which may vary within clusters), we could not just recover the unobserved ‘truth’, but would need to use a stochastic imputation data method, or discard the incomplete units altogether (i.e., complete case analysis, CCA).

CCA may introduce bias when the observed values are not a random sample of the population.

	cluster	X_1	X_2	X_3	...	X_p
1	1			NA		
2	1					
3	2		NA			
4	2		NA	NA		
5	3					
...						
n	N					

Figure 1: Sporadic and Systematic Missingness

For example, in a clinical trial comparing a new treatment with a standard or reference treatment, some participants receiving the new treatment may drop out due to side effects. If the sickest patients have the most side effects, then the sickest patients are excluded under CCA, resulting in a selection bias in which the effect of the new treatment is overestimated. Moreover, reducing the sample size can impede the estimation procedure of the main model, leading to inefficient estimations and reduced statistical power. This can potentially impacting the conclusions drawn from hypothesis tests.

Apart from CCA, there are several strategies that can be used to handle missing data, such as maximum likelihood, Bayesian estimation and imputation. Imputation, in particular, separates the missing data problem from the analysis, allowing the completed data to be analyzed as if it were completely observed. It is generally recommended to impute the missing values more than once (multiple imputation) in order to preserve uncertainty due to missingness and to allow for valid inferences [Rubin \(1976\)](#).

Imputing missing data requires consideration of the mechanism behind the missingness. Rubin proposed to distinguish between data that are missing completely at random (MCAR), data that are missing at random (MAR) and data that are missing not at random (MNAR; see [Box ??](#)). For each of these three missingness generating mechanisms, different imputation strategies are warranted ([Yucel \(2008\)](#); [Hox, van Buuren, and Jolani \(2015\)](#)).

Box 3: Missingness mechanisms

Concept	Details
Missing completely at random (MCAR)	The probability to be missing is equal across all entries in the dataset.
Missing at random (MAR)	The probability to be missing depends on observed information
Missing not at random (MNAR)	The probability to be missing depends on unrecorded information, making the missingness non-ignorable Rubin (1976) .

In this manuscript, we focus on the multiple imputation (MI) approach using the fully conditional specification (FCS). This approach is popular, easy-to-use and it can be applied to various types of incomplete variables and missingness patterns. The R **mice** package imple-

ments this approach. It assumes MAR by default, but it can also be extended to certain MNAR data.

MI assumes that data follow a multivariate distribution, so incomplete values for each variable are imputed or filled in with draws from this distribution. The FCS approach relaxes this assumption by specifying the multivariate distribution through conditional distributions. The procedure generates imputed values for each variable iteratively, where an **imputation method** needs to be specified for each incomplete variable, conditional on other variables included in the dataset.

MICE and other **MICE**-based packages offer a variety of parametric methods that implicitly assume a (statistical) **imputation model**, as well as non-parametric methods such as Predictive Mean Matching (PMM), Random Forest, or k-Nearest Neighbors (k-NN) to generate the imputed values. These methods can be used for single-level data (defined as 1L methods) as well hierarchical data with two levels (2L methods) or more [Grund et al. \(2018\)](#).

After the imputation procedure (or **imputation step**), multiple complete datasets, say M in total, are obtained, with missing values filled in with plausible values. Then, in an **estimation step**, the main model or estimation procedure of the study is applied to each of the M complete datasets. Finally, in a **pooling step**, the results of the M analyses, usually point estimates and their standard errors, are combined into a single result using Rubin's rules. [Rubin \(1987\)](#)

2. Multilevel imputation strategies

In hierarchical incomplete data, the use of imputation strategies that ignore clustering, i.e., 1L methods, might result in biased parameter estimates and underestimation of the between-cluster variance, leading to inflated Type I error rates, especially when the true intra-class correlation (ICC) is large ($ICC > 0.1$). [Taljaard, Donner, and Klar \(2008\)](#); [Enders, Mistler, and Keller \(2016\)](#). They can only be used when the proportion of missingness (less 5%) and the ICC are low ($< .1$) [Grund et al. \(2018\)](#). Therefore, it is crucial to utilize strategies that account for clustering, such as the use of a cluster indicator, which is employing imputation separated by clusters, or adopting multilevel imputation methods (2l-method) [Eddings \(2024\)](#).

In the **cluster indicator** strategy, the cluster variable (transformed internally by **mice** to dummy variables) serves as a predictor using 1L imputation methods. This implies that all variability between clusters is attributed to the cluster, rendering the inclusion of level 2 variables unnecessary in the prediction model [McNeish and Kelley \(2019\)](#). This strategy performs well in datasets with few clusters and numerous observations per cluster [Graham \(2009\)](#). It can be used for estimation of hierarchical model parameters when the primary interest of the study are the fixed effects. However, since the imputed values per cluster are biased towards the cluster mean, it may lead to overestimation of the between-cluster variance and an inflation of the Type II error, particularly when the true ICC is small ($ICC < 0.1$), the percentage of missingness is large, and with small cluster sizes [Andridge \(2011\)](#); [Drechsler \(2015\)](#).

In the **separate cluster imputation** strategy, the data set is divided into subdatasets according to the cluster variable. Then, imputations are separately performed on each subdataset, and combined (e.g., using the **rbind** function) in one imputation object that is finally used in the main analysis. As the imputation models are independently estimated in each

cluster, and in some cases may use different predictors, e.g., when a predictor variable is systematically missing as the information was not collected in a group. Similar to the cluster indicator approach, this method could lead to an overestimation of the variance between clusters in the estimation of a hierarchical model and, therefore, a reduction in power. %This strategy is sometimes used when the interaction term between variables is of special interest in the main analysis, for example, the interaction between a treatment and a group [Van Buuren \(2018\)](#).

In the strategy that employs **multilevel imputation methods**, 2L methods are used. These 2L methods have been developed to internally account for the hierarchical structure of the data, which allows for obtaining proper estimates of the fixed effects and the variance components of the hierarchical model [Speidel, Drechsler, and Sakshaug \(2018\)](#). The 2l methods include **1-stage methods**, where a hierarchical model is estimated using the complete observations. This model associates the target variable (to be imputed) with a set of predictor variables, incorporating both fixed and random effects. While these methods tend to perform better for balanced data, their performance may be compromised when the number of clusters is insufficient to accurately estimate the hierarchical model [Grund et al. \(2018\)](#).

Additionally, there are **2-stage methods** where the imputation model is estimated in two steps. In the first step, a model (e.g., a generalized linear model) is estimated for each cluster based on the complete observations, and in the second step, the parameters of the models for each cluster are combined using meta-analysis techniques to obtain a model with pooled parameters, which serves as the basis for imputing missing values. Some of the 2L methods used in *mice* are detailed in the Annex Table ??

It has been recommended that the imputation strategy should align with the main (study analysis) model, commonly referred to as congeniality [Meng \(1994\)](#). Hence, it's vital to carefully evaluate the assumptions of each method and compare them with those of the main model. This includes considerations such as assumptions about the distribution of the outcome model, inclusion of interaction terms, and homoscedasticity (equal error variance across clusters). However, it's essential to examine the information provided by the data and determine if it sufficiently meets the requirements imposed by the imputation method, taking into account factors like sample size, number of clusters, and missing patterns (e.g., systematic missingness). Additionally, it's worth considering whether a complex imputation model is suitable for the data, as less complex strategies may also yield unbiased estimates in specific scenarios [Bailey, Andridge, and Shoben \(2020\)](#).

3. Imputation workflow

Below, an imputation workflow is described that can be generally used to impute multilevel data. A brief description of each step is provided, along with general recommendations about the technical procedure.

3.1. Pre-imputation

First, the variables in the data set should be clearly identified in terms of their hierarchical type (level-1, level-2 or cluster) and variable type (continuous, binary, factor, count). This step will help to select the appropriate imputation method for each type of variable, to

correctly specify and include the variables in `mice`, and to ensure consistency in the format of the variables across all clusters.

Next, the observed data should be characterized. We can use a density plot for each cluster or spaghetti plots to understand if the intended main analysis is appropriate for the data (e.g., random intercept vs. a random slope model). Additionally, the ICC should be examined to assess the cluster differences and to select the most convenient imputation strategy (such as cluster indicator versus hierarchical methods). Then, the missingness should be characterized using visual tools such as `ggmice` [Oberman \(2023\)](#). Constructing missingness pattern plots and missingness percentage plots per cluster is recommended to identify the information available at each cluster and also to select the most appropriate imputation method.

When preparing the dataset for imputation, it should be ensured that all essential variables required for the main analysis are included, such as the exposure or intervention, outcome, covariates, confounders, stratification factors, the cluster variable, and sample unit ID. Additionally, other useful variables, such as instrumental or auxiliary variables, should be considered for inclusion, which may enhance the accuracy of the imputation model.

Auxiliary variables with a high proportion of missing data may have minimal impact on the imputation model and could mitigate the risk of multicollinearity or computational issues, especially with certain parametric imputation methods. Therefore, the selection of auxiliary variables should be guided by the association between the incomplete variable and predictor variables, using correlation statistics, as well as the potential contribution of one variable to impute another, using missingness pattern statistics such as the influx and outflux criteria. The inflow criteria quantify the connections between missing data in one variable and observed data in others, while the outflow criteria measure the connections between observed values in one variable and missing data in others [Van Buuren \(2018\)](#) (§ 4.1.3).

Finally, before imputation is undertaken, we should assess if the estimation procedure is robust to missing data, i.e., if the main model can handle missing data. Sometimes, simpler methods like complete case analysis might suffice, especially if the missingness is low (usually <5%). There are scenarios in which specific Maximum Likelihood (ML) estimation methods outperform Multiple Imputation (MI) methods. For instance, when the response variable is the only incomplete variable, mixed models demonstrate robustness to missing data under the MAR assumption and with a correct variance-covariance specification [Molenberghs and Kenward \(2007\)](#).

3.2. Imputation

Choice of individual imputation methods

The imputation model for each incomplete variable in the dataset should be chosen first. The `mice` package provides a range of imputation methods designed specifically for hierarchical data (See Annex, Table ??). Notable among these are `jomo` [Quartagno, Grund, and Carpenter \(2019\)](#), `micemd` [Audigier and Resche-Rigon \(2023\)](#), and `pan` [Schafer and Yucel \(2002\)](#). For a comparison of these methods for addressing variables with systematic and sporadic missingness, see [Audigier, White, Jolani, Debray, Quartagno, Carpenter, van Buuren, and Resche-Rigon \(2018\)](#).

The `make.method` function in **mice** suggests the most plausible 1L imputation method for incomplete variables according to their type (continuous, binary, categorical). However, modifications are required for clustered data and when the type variable is not aligned with the data (e.g., some skewed continuous variables are better imputed with pmm methods).

To address level-2 variables, the **micemd** package offers the `find.defaultMethod` function. This function assists in selecting a 2L imputation method from the **micemd** methods based on cluster size, the proportion of missing data in each cluster, and the variable class. For level-2 variables, the same value needs to be assigned to all units in the cluster. This can be achieved by specific methods where separate imputations are performed for level-1 and level-2 variables. [Grund *et al.* \(2018\)](#)

Besides the package-defined imputation methods, custom methods can be specified using the “I formula.” This allows deterministic variables to be calculated during the imputation or the imputation methods to be tweaked based on specific conditions, such as conditioning the imputation model to the level of an incomplete covariate (e.g., a pregnancy test for females). **Deductive imputation** is used to impute values that can be deterministically deducted from other variables using logical rules or formulas, such as BMI from weight and height. This can also be useful for getting values for level-1 variables from level-2 ones, like in IPD from multiple studies. For example, deductive imputation can be employed to infer missing test values for patients associated with a centre unit that lacks a test procedure or machine, considering accessible metadata or protocol details.

Model specification

The imputation model for each incomplete variable must be aligned with the main (substantive) model. Therefore, it should be ensured that the imputation model shares the assumptions with the main model, such as the treatment of clustering, the inclusion of non-linear or interaction terms, and variable transformations.

However, the imputation model can include additional variables without causing compatibility issues. For example, it’s recommended to include the outcome variable in the imputation model for predictor variables [Moons, Donders, Stijnen, and Harrell \(2006\)](#). If the outcome is time-to-event, the Nelson-Aalen estimate of the time to the event and the event indicator should be added as covariates in the imputation model [White and Royston \(2009\)](#). Also, including auxiliary variables associated with the probability of missing data may enhance estimation efficiency [Hardt, Herke, and Leonhart \(2012\)](#).

Box 4: Prediction matrix

Given the following hierarchical model with an outcome variable y_{ij} for the i -th cluster and j -th observation associated with $X_{ij} = (x1_{ij}, \dots, x5_{ij})$.

$$\begin{aligned} y_{ij} = & (\beta_0 + b_{0_i}) + \beta_1 x_{1_{ij}} + \beta_2 x_{2_i} \\ & + (\beta_3 + b_{3_i}) x_{3_{ij}} + \beta_4 x_{4_{ij}} + \beta_{m4} \bar{x}_{4_i} \\ & + (\beta_5 + b_{5_i}) x_{5_{ij}} + \beta_{m5} \bar{x}_{5_i} + \epsilon_{ij} \end{aligned}$$

The prediction matrix to be included in the `mice` function can be defined according to the following codes:

Code	Definition (default)
-2	Cluster variable, in this case the one defined by index j
0	No predictor variable
1	Fixed effect predictor, e.g., level-1 $x_{1_{ij}}$ or level-2 x_{2_i} .
2	Random effect predictor, e.g., $x_{3_{ij}}$
3	*Fixed effect predictor and predictor cluster mean, e.g., $x_{4_{ij}}$
4	*Random effect predictor and predictor cluster mean, e.g., $x_{5_{ij}}$

For the Heckman model, Code 2 is redefined, and two extra codes are added:

Code	Definition (Heckman model)
2	Random effect predictor is included in both the selection and outcome equations
-3	Random effect predictor is only in selection model (Exclusion restriction)
-4	Random effect predictor exclusively appears in the main model.

*For 1-stage 2l methods, it has been recommended to use variables of prediction code 3 and 4, as the inclusion of the means of the cluster might be beneficial to imputation performance [Mistler and Enders \(2017\)](#), [Van Buuren \(2018\)](#)(§ 7.5.1).

Imputation models are specified on a incomplete variable basis, either using a prediction matrix in the `pred` parameter or through a list of formulas in the `formula` parameter. In the prediction matrix option, the prediction code of each predictor variable is specified for each incomplete variable using predictor codes (see Box 4). On the other hand, the formula option is useful in specifying complex imputation models with polynomial terms or interactions and compared with the prediction matrix method do not require the inclusion of additional terms as Just Another Variable (JAV) [Van Buuren \(2018\)](#) (§ 6.4).

Recipes have been proposed for setting the imputation models of incomplete level-1 and level-2 variables [Van Buuren \(2018\)](#) (§ 7.10). These guidelines can be convenient to follow when the main model is complex, such as those with interaction terms at different levels. Following these recipes helps mitigate convergence problems that may arise due to over-specification in the imputation model and ensures compatibility among the conditionally specified imputation models, as well as congeniality between the imputation model and the main model. However, they can not be applicable to all 2l imputation methods. For instance, the `2l.2stage` imputation methods of the `micemd` package only allow the inclusion of random predictor variables (prediction code = 2).

3.3. Issues during imputation

During the imputation process, certain issues may arise that halt the process. In hierarchical model imputations, many issues are related to over-fitting the imputation model. To trou-

bleshoot, it is recommended to inspect the imputation log file for variables causing problems. One approach to address this is to reduce the number of predictors by using functions like `quickpred` or by applying the previously referred recipes step by step.

Another option is to consider variable transformations, such as centering within clusters, and scaling when the model is invariant to linear transformations e.g., random intercept models. Also, adjusting the level of the hierarchical model (e.g., using a homogeneous variance imputation method) might also be beneficial.

It is crucial to check the range of imputed variables, as excessively large imputed values for one predictor may trigger convergence issues in other variables. To tackle this, including post-processing specifications on problematic variables or utilizing imputation models like Predicted Mean Matching (PMM) can ensure that imputed values align with observable values.

In some situations, adopting a separate imputations strategy per study objective might be worth considering. For example, in analyses involving multiple endpoints, conducting distinct imputation processes for each endpoint could be more effective than a unified imputation approach.

3.4. Convergence and Sensitivity Analysis

Before starting the analysis of each imputed dataset, it is crucial to validate the convergence of the imputation process. This is commonly accomplished through trace plots that depict the mean and variance of the incomplete variables across iterations. These plots serve to uncover the need for additional iterations and also to identify potential circular dependencies, i.e., when the missing part of a variable X^{miss} depends on the missing part of another variable Z^{miss} , which in turn depends on X^{miss} . Additionally, it is also important to verify that imputed values fall within a plausible range and also to check the distribution of imputed variables, ensuring that the imputed variable distribution aligns with the distribution of observed values (under the MAR assumption). An alternative approach involves assessing the prediction accuracy of the imputation method [Cai, Van Buuren, and Vink \(2023\)](#).

While the majority of **MICE** methods are based on MAR assumptions, field expert input may suggest that the MNAR mechanism could be plausible for certain variables. An MNAR variable is one in which the probability of missingness depends on an unobservable variable. This can occur when missingness is associated with the incomplete value itself (self-marking) or when there is an unobserved variable linked to both the value and the probability of missingness of the incomplete value (indirectly non-informative). Specifically, for the indirectly non-informative case in hierarchical datasets, imputation methods based on the Heckman method can be considered [Hammon and Zinn \(2020\)](#); [Hammon \(2022\)](#); [Muñoz, Efthimiou, Audigier, De Jong, and Debray \(2023a\)](#).

3.5. Main analysis

Finally, after verifying the imputation process, the main analysis is performed on each of the M imputation datasets from the mice output. These calculations can be done manually or easily by passing the mice output object directly into the multilevel model functions of the **nlme** or **lme4** packages.

Then, the model parameters of each imputed dataset are pooled following Rubin's rules [Rubin \(1987\)](#), which have already been implemented in R functions such as `pool` from the **broom.mixed** package [Bolker, Robinson, Menne, Gabry, Buerkner, Hua, Petry, Wiley, Kennedy, SE\), Patil, and Arel-Bundock \(2021\)](#) or `testEstimates` from the **mitml** package [Grund, Robitzsch, and Luedtke \(2023\)](#).

4. Case studies

In this section, we will go over the different steps involved in imputing incomplete multilevel data using the **mice** package. Initially, we illustrate how to apply multiple imputation strategies on the **impact** data. Then, using the popular data, we demonstrate how to apply the 1-stage 2L imputation methods along with the application of recipes for interaction terms. Finally, with the obesity data, we apply the 2-stage imputation methods and show how to extend these methods in the case of MNAR data.

4.1. Application of multilevel imputation strategies in Impact

The first case study uses the **impact** dataset, which gathers information from 15 studies containing the patient mortality after suffering from traumatic brain injury (TBI) and some admission information values. The dataset includes the following 11 variables:

- **id** Patient id,
- **name** Name of the study,
- **type** Type of study (RCT: randomized controlled trial, OBS: observational cohort),
- **age** Age of the patient,
- **motor_score** Glasgow Coma Scale motor score, factor with 4 levels,
- **pupil** Pupillary reactivity, factor with 3 levels,
- **ct** Marshall Computerized Tomography classification, factor with 3 levels,
- **hypox** Hypoxia (0=no, 1=yes),
- **hypots** Hypotension (0=no, 1=yes),
- **tsah** Traumatic subarachnoid hemorrhage (0=no, 1=yes),
- **edh** Epidural hematoma (0=no, 1=yes),
- **mort** 6-month mortality (0=alive, 1=dead).

This data was previously used by [Steyerberg, Mushkudiani, Perel, Butcher, Lu, McHugh, Murray, Marmarou, Roberts, Habbema, and Maas \(2008\)](#); [Steyerberg, Nieboer, Debray, and van Houwelingen \(2019\)](#), where models of different complexity were estimated to predict 6-month mortality using the admission information of patients. For simplicity, we considered the common effect approach with respect to the predictor effects β , where the intercepts α vary between clusters, but the predictor effects β are constant. The prediction (main) model uses age, motor_score, pupil reactivity, and CT as predictors, being the model for the i -th patient from the j -th study is given as:

$$\begin{aligned} mort_{ij} &= \text{Bernoulli}(p_{ij}) \\ \text{logit}(p_{ij}) &= \alpha_j + \beta_1 \text{age}_{ij} + \beta_2 \text{motor_score}_{ij} + \beta_3 \text{pupil}_{ij} + \beta_4 \text{ct}_{ij} \quad (\text{main model : 1}) \end{aligned}$$

Here, α_j is the main effect of the cluster j and the effects β_1 , β_2 , β_3 and β_4 are assumed constant across the clusters.

Pre-imputation

The `impact` data, directly retrieved from the `metamisc` package, is a complete data set. For the purpose of this tutorial we have induced missingness (mimicking the missing data in the original data set before imputation). The resulting incomplete data can be accessed from [zenodo](#). We start by loading the incomplete data into the R workspace and checking the structure:

```
dati <- readr::read_rds("../Data/impact_incomplete.rds")
dati$id <- 1:nrow(dati)
str(dati)

'data.frame':  11022 obs. of  12 variables:
 $ name      : Factor w/ 15 levels "APOE","CSTAT",...: 13 13 13 13 13 13 13 13 13 13 ...
 $ type      : Factor w/ 2 levels "OBS","RCT": 2 2 2 2 2 2 2 2 2 2 ...
 $ age       : int  53 14 30 35 18 20 26 17 75 19 ...
 $ motor_score: Factor w/ 4 levels "1/2","3","4",...: 4 3 4 4 4 4 1 3 4 3 ...
 $ pupil     : Factor w/ 3 levels "Both","None",...: 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 3 ...
 $ ct        : Factor w/ 3 levels "I/II","III","IV/V": 1 1 1 3 1 2 1 2 1 1 ...
 $ hypox     : int   0 0 0 0 1 0 0 0 0 NA ...
 $ hypots    : int   1 0 0 0 0 0 1 1 0 0 ...
 $ tsah      : int   0 1 1 0 0 0 1 0 0 0 ...
 $ edh       : int   0 0 0 0 0 NA 0 0 0 0 ...
 $ mort      : int   1 0 0 0 1 0 1 1 0 1 ...
 $ id        : int   1 2 3 4 5 6 7 8 9 10 ...
```

We then classify the variables according to their type, hierarchical significance, and whether they are essential in the main analysis, i.e., present in the model (see Table 4).

Table 4: Variables types in the impact data

Variable	Variable Type	Hierarchical Type	Model type
id	ID	Sample unit	Auxiliary
name	ID	Cluster	Essential
type	categorical	Level-2	Essential
age	continuous	Level-1	Essential
motor_score	categorical	Level-1	Essential
pupil	categorical	Level-1	Essential
ct	categorical	Level-1	Essential
mort	binary	Level-1	Essential
hypox	binary	Level-1	Auxiliary
hypots	binary	Level-1	Auxiliary

Variable	Variable Type	Hierarchical Type	Model type
tsha	binary	Level-1	Auxiliary
edh	binary	Level-1	Auxiliary

```
library("tidyverse")
dati <- dati|>
  mutate(across(-c("age","id","mort"), as.factor))
levels(dati$motor_score) <- c("1_2","3","4","5_6")
levels(dati$ct) <- c("I_II","III","IV_V")
```

With the **ggmice** function `plot_pattern()`, we can visualize the missing data pattern. The ten most frequent missingness patterns are shown with the following instruction:

```
library("ggmice")
plot_pattern(dati, rotate = TRUE, cluster= "name", npat = 10L)
```

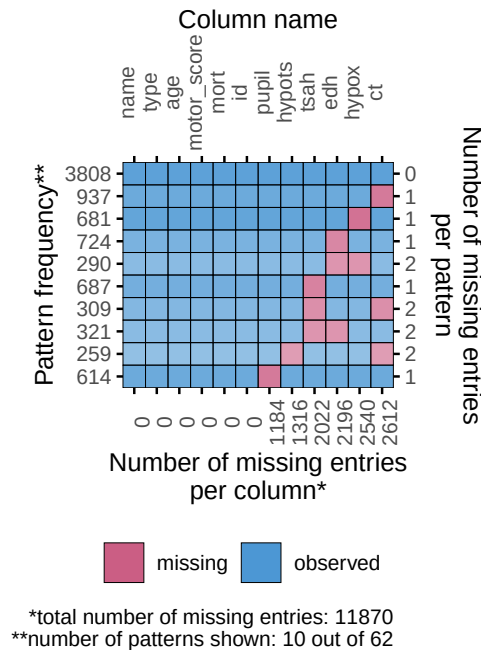


Figure 2: Missingness pattern in the impact data

By specifying the cluster parameter in the `plot_pattern` function, one can visualize not only the patterns but also which of them are more frequent across the clusters. For instance, the first, third and last patterns are present in all clusters, as indicated by the strong opacity, while the other patterns are only present in some clusters, as they are more transparent. Figure 2 shows that we need to impute the essential variables `ct` and `pupil`.

Particularly for clustered data, we need to examine whether the missingness is systematic or sporadic in the incomplete variables. To do this, we can calculate the percentage of missingness per group as follows:

```
library("pheatmap")
dati |>
  group_by(name)|>
  dplyr::summarize(across(everything(),
                          ~ (sum(is.na(.))*100/length(.))))|>
  tibble::column_to_rownames(var = "name")|>
  pheatmap::pheatmap(display_numbers = T,
                     cluster_rows=FALSE, cluster_cols=FALSE)
```

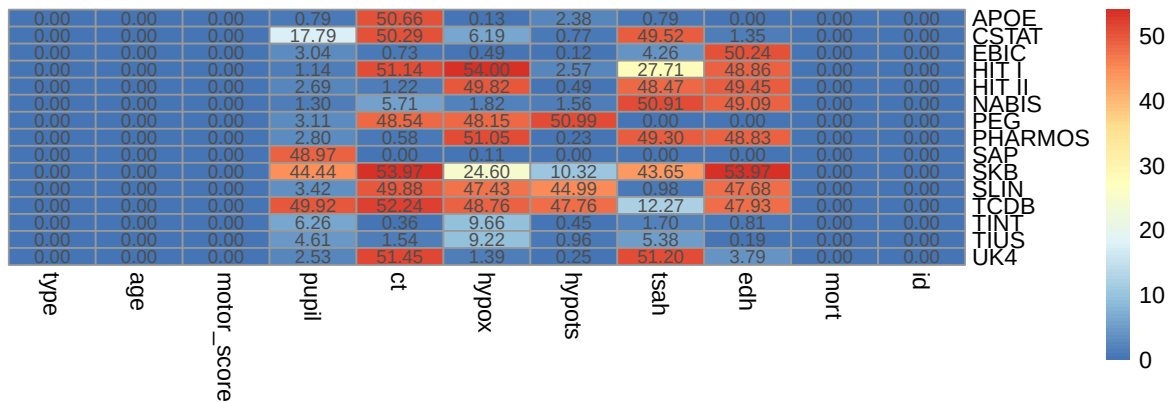


Figure 3: Missingness % per cluster in the impact dataset

From Figure 3, we observe that none of the variables is systematically missing but there are some auxiliary variables that could serve to impute ct and pupil at the cluster level.

We can further evaluate which variables may be useful as auxiliaries by plotting the flux plot, which helps identify potential predictors of missing values among the auxiliary variables.

```
library(mice)
fluxplot(dati)
```

Figure 4 reveals that the majority of auxiliary variables have an outflux value ranging between 0.5 and 0.8, indicating that they are not powerful predictors (outflux > 0.9) but could still provide information for predicting other incomplete variables. Additionally, in this plot, we can observe that the 'hypox' and 'ct' variables have the highest influx, indicating that they are more dependent on the imputation model compared to other variables in the dataset.

We can also check the pairwise correlation plot as follows:

```
R> plot_corr(dati, rotate = TRUE)

library(ggcorrplot)
model.matrix(~0+.,
             data=dati|>select(!name))|>
```

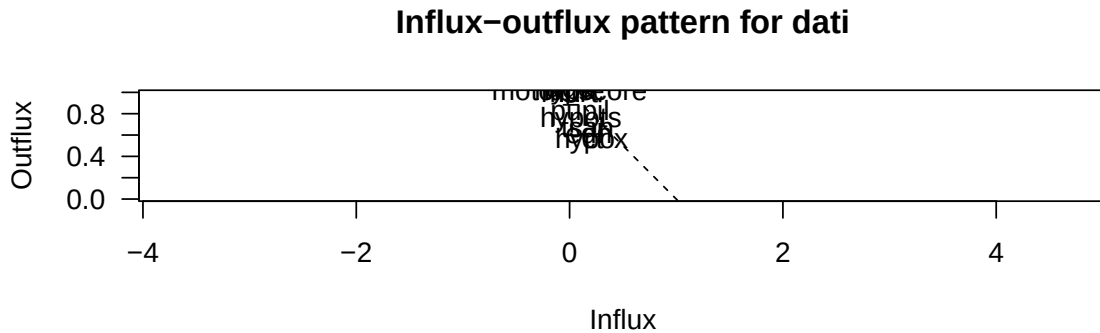


Figure 4: Influx-outflux pattern for the impact data

```
cor(use="pairwise.complete.obs") |>
ggcorrplot(show.diag=FALSE,
            type="lower",
            lab=TRUE,
            lab_size=2)
```

Figure 6 shows us that `hypox` and `hypot` would not be useful auxiliary variables for imputing `ct`. Depending on the minimum required correlation, `tsah` could be useful, while `edh` has the strongest correlation with `ct` (IV_V level) out of auxiliary variables in the data and should definitely be included in the imputation model. For the imputation of `pupil`, `hypots` and `hypox` could be used given the relative correlation with the pupil None level. We conclude that we will use all auxiliary variables in the imputation model.

Finally, we assess the heterogeneity of mortality across the studies using the ICC. We employ a random intercept model that incorporates the model predictors and level-2 variables (type of study) estimated on the complete observations.

```
mod_cc <- with(dati|> filter(complete.cases(dati)),
               lme4::glmer(mort~type+age+motor_score+ pupil+ct+(1|name),
                           family = binomial))
performance::icc(mod_cc)

# Intraclass Correlation Coefficient

Adjusted ICC: 0.023
Unadjusted ICC: 0.016
```

The low ICC value (ICC=0.016) suggests that observations within clusters are not significantly more similar than observations across different studies. This indicates that a linear mixed model may not be necessary in the main model or for imputation, allowing us to proceed with a simpler strategy.

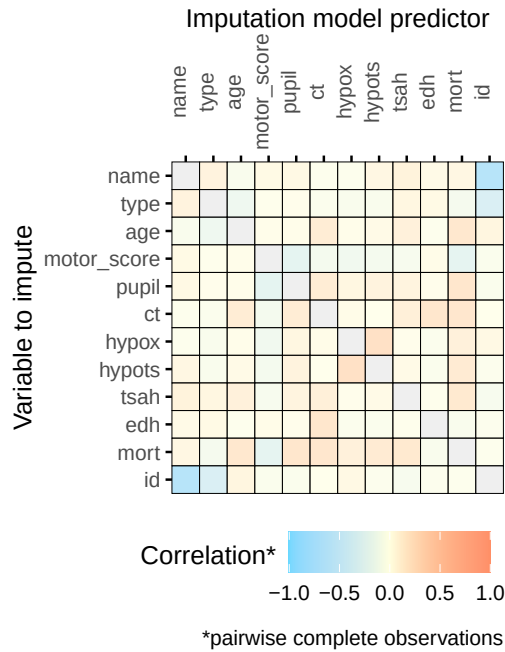


Figure 5: Pairwise correlation in the impact dataset

Imputation

Let's now proceed with the multiple imputation of this dataset. The first step is to set up the imputation method. We can use the `make.method` function, which suggests a plausible imputation method based on the type of variable. This function returns a vector specifying the imputation method for each variable in the dataset.

```
meth <- mice::make.method(dati)
meth
```

```

      name      type      age motor_score      pupil
      ""      ""      ""      ""      "polyreg"
      ct      hypox      hypots      tsah      edh
"polyreg" "logreg" "logreg"  "logreg"  "logreg"
      mort      id
      ""      ""
```

By default, `mice` assigns the `logreg` (logistic regression) imputation method to binary variables, such as `hypox` and `edh`, and the `polyreg` (polytomous regression) imputation method to unordered factors with more than two levels, such as `pupil` and `ct`. It's worth noting that variables without any specified method, such as `id` and `name`, are complete. Here, we do not need to modify the default imputation methods, as we will follow the cluster indicator imputation strategy.

Next, we need to set the prediction matrix, we start by creating a predictor matrix using the `make.predictorMatrix` function. This results in a matrix where each row describes

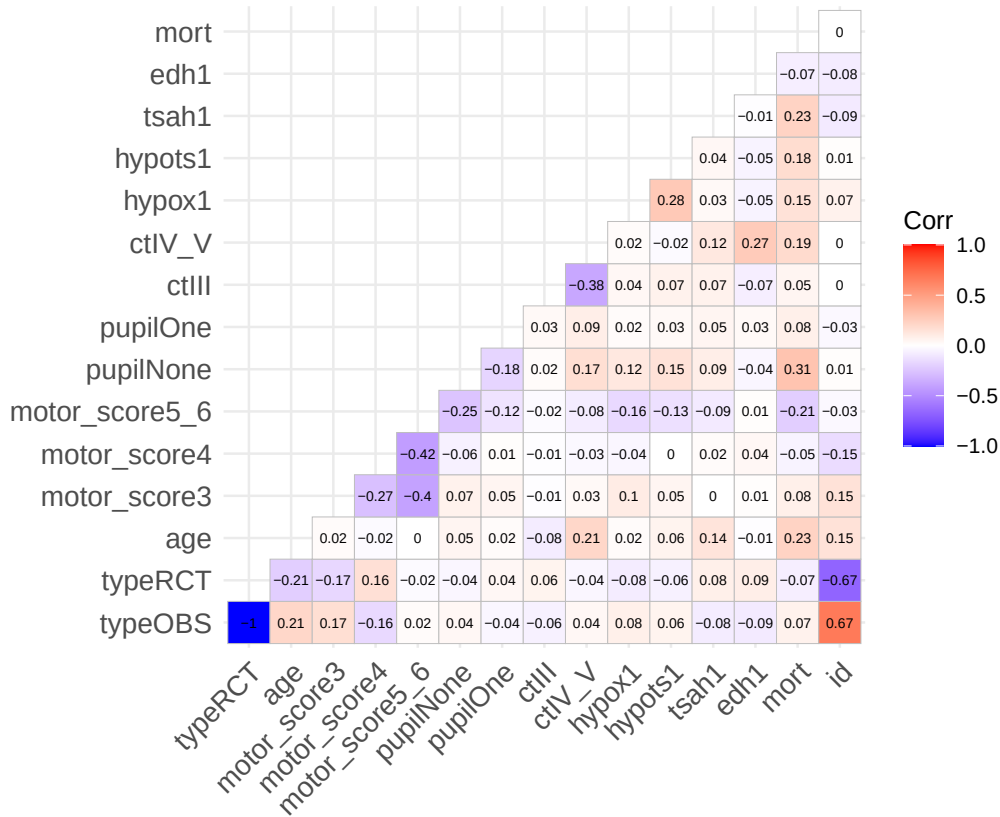


Figure 6: Pairwise correlation in the impact dataset

the prediction model of each incomplete variable on the dataset in terms of other variables arranged in the columns, where the cell value refers to the prediction code of the variable (See Box 4).

```
pred <- make.predictorMatrix(dati)
```

We can better visualize the prediction matrix and the imputation methods assigned to each incomplete variable by means of the `plot_pred` function from the **ggmice** package.

```
plot_pred(pred, method = meth, rotate = TRUE)
```

The predictor matrix shows the variables that are included in the imputation model (prediction code 1) and those that are not included (prediction code 0). Additionally, the rows of the matrix only specify the imputation method for the incomplete variables in the dataset.

We still are required to modify the prediction matrix and remove some predictor variables. For instance, the “id” variable should not be used for imputation, as it has no predictive value for imputation, but we still need to include the variable in the imputation dataset as afterwards it will be used for the identification of each observation.

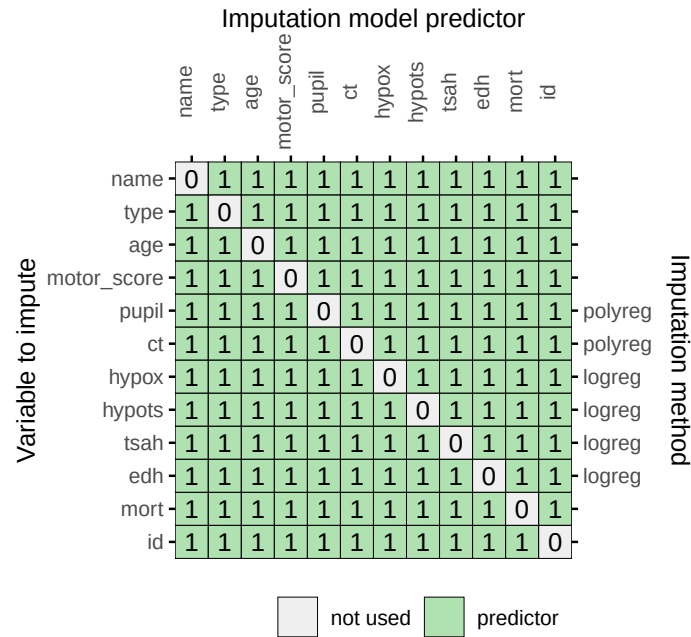


Figure 7: Prediction matrix in mice by ggmice

Also, as differences between clusters will be explained solely by the cluster variable “name,” the variations at level-2 are meaningless and should not be included in the imputation model. Therefore, we need to remove the level-2 variable “type”, and the level-1 variable “id” as follows:

```
pred[, c("id", "type")] <- 0
```

At times, the predictor matrix can be constructed using the `quickpred()` function, which employs a variable selection procedure based on the correlation between the target missing variable and potential predictor variables in the dataset [Van Buuren \(2018\)](#)(§ 9.1.6). However, it's crucial to verify the output of this function, as it may sometimes result in imputation models for the outcome variable that lack essential variables, have a limited list of predictors, or contain inconsistent hierarchical terms, for instance, interaction terms without the inclusion of the main effects. To prevent essential variables from being excluded, include them with the “include” argument.

Then, we construct the ‘visit’ vector, to specify the order in which incomplete variables are imputed. Here, we ordered according to the missing percentage.

```
visit <- c("pupil", "hypots", "tsah", "edh", "hypox", "ct")
```

Next, we proceed to impute the data by setting the `meth` and `pred` and `visit` parameters in the `mice` function. The output is a `mice` object that can be passed on to `mice` package functions and other package functions such as functions from the modeling packages **lme4** and **nlme**.

```
impcind <- mice(dati, pred = pred, meth = meth, visit = visit)
```

The cluster imputation strategy might suffice for the considered main model. The separate cluster imputation strategy might be applied also, but it might not be congenial with the main model as this imputation strategy assumes that β effects vary across clusters, which differs from the main model common effect.

If further complexities are taken into account in the study, such as assuming that studies are randomly selected and that intercepts follow a random distribution (random intercept), the main model would be represented instead as:

$$\begin{aligned} mort_{ij} &= \text{Bernoulli}(p_{ij}) \\ \text{logit}(p_{ij}) &= \alpha_j + \beta_1 age_{ij} + \beta_2 motor_score_{ij} + \beta_3 pupil_{ij} + \beta_4 ct_{ij} \\ \alpha_j &\sim N(\alpha, \tau^2) \end{aligned} \quad (\text{main model : 2})$$

where α is the overall intercept and τ^2 the between-study variance. In this scenario, the complexity of the imputation model should be increased by employing a 2l.model, thus facilitating a congenial model with the [main model : 2](#) and avoiding bias in the variance components [Speidel et al. \(2018\)](#). For brevity, the code for these three strategies is included in the annex.

Post-imputation

Trace plots can be checked for each strategy. Here we show the plots for the cluster indicator strategy (Figure8), which do not reveal any trend on the mean and standard deviation (sd) of the imputed variables.

```
plot_trace(impcind)
```

We estimate the random intercept model ([main model : 2](#)) using three imputation strategies along with a complete case analysis (CCA). Here, we display only the estimation results. In the following section, we will detail the procedure of estimation and pooling of parameters from a hierarchical model. The code to reproduce the figures is also included in the annex.

From Figure9a, we observe that the estimates of the coefficients (common effects) are quite similar across the three imputation strategies. On the other hand, the estimates from CCA are slightly different, particularly for the `motor_score1` effect, which has large confidence intervals. Regarding the estimates of the between-study variance (Figure9b, we did not find large differences across the strategy estimates. However, the estimate from the CCA is notably lower compared to the estimates from these strategies.

4.2. Illustration of one-stage imputation in the Popularity data

For the second study case, we focus on demonstrating the imputation of clustered data using 1-stage 2L methods, which are based on a (generalized) linear mixed model simultaneously estimated across clusters. We consider the simulated ‘popmis’ dataset, which includes pupils ($n = 2000$) clustered within schools ($N = 100$). The following variables are of primary interest:

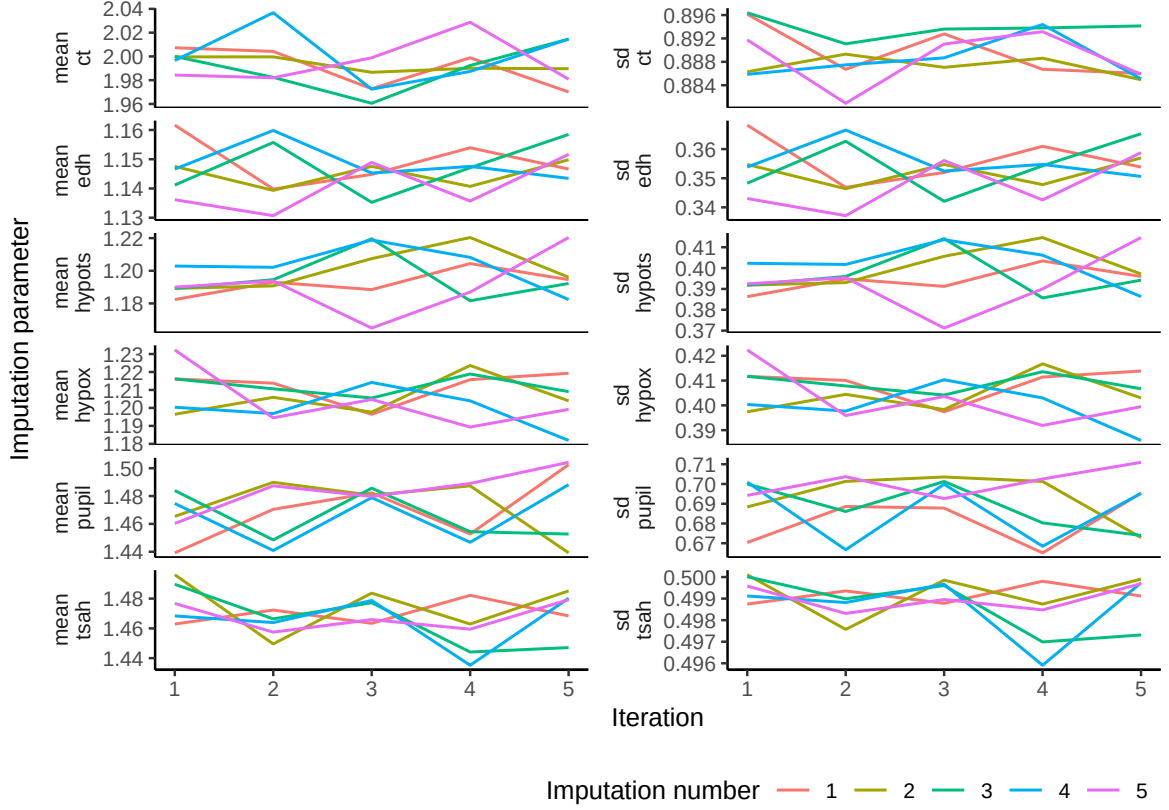


Figure 8: Trace plots for imputation with missing indicator strategy in the impact data

- **pupil**, pupil identifier within the school.
- **school**, school identification number;
- **popular**, pupil popularity, self-rating between 0 and 10;
- **sex**, pupil sex with levels 0 = boy, 1 = girl;
- **texp**, teacher experience in years;
- **teachpop**, teacher popularity rate given by the pupils.

The objective of this study is to develop a prediction model for pupil popularity, that accounts for heterogeneity between schools. The main analysis of the dataset will employ a hierarchical model, specifically a multivariable regression with random intercepts and slopes for the different schools, where estimates the popularity of the j -th student belonging to the i -th school based on the gender of the student, the teacher's experience, and the teacher's popularity as follows:

$$\begin{aligned} popular_{ij} = & (\beta_0 + b_{0i}) + \beta_1 sex_{ij} + \beta_2 exp_{ij} \\ & + (\beta_3 + b_{3i}) teachpop_{ij} + \beta_4 exp_{ij} * teachpop_{ij} + \epsilon_{ij} \end{aligned}$$

where $\beta_0, \beta_1, \beta_2, \beta_3$ and β_4 are the fixed effects, b_{0i} is the random intercept effect and b_{3i} is the random slope effect of teacher's popularity distributed as

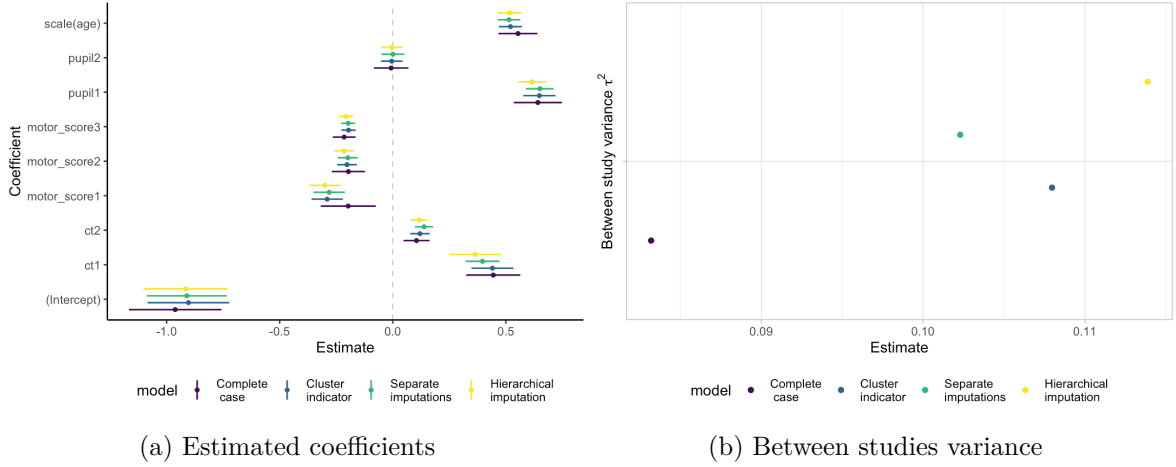


Figure 9: Estimates of the main model in the impact dataset

$\begin{bmatrix} b_0 \\ b_3 \end{bmatrix} \sim N \left(\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} \tau_0^2 & \rho\tau_0\tau_3 \\ \rho\tau_0\tau_3 & \tau_3^2 \end{bmatrix} \right)$, τ_0^2 and τ_3^2 are respectively the intercept and slope variances and ρ the correlation of the random effects. The ϵ_{ij} denotes the error term distributed as $\epsilon_{ij} \sim N(0, \sigma^2)$, with population variance σ^2 .

This hierarchical approach enables us to simultaneously consider individual-level factors (such as gender) and school-level factors (such as teacher experience), providing a comprehensive understanding of their influence and interactions on pupil popularity scores.

We load the data into the R environment and select the relevant variables which results in the following data structure.

```
data("popmis", package = "mice")
str(popmis)

'data.frame': 2000 obs. of 7 variables:
 $ pupil : int 1 2 3 4 5 6 7 8 9 10 ...
 $ school : int 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 ...
 $ popular : int NA NA 7 NA NA 7 NA NA NA NA ...
 $ sex : int 1 0 1 1 1 0 0 0 0 0 ...
 $ texp : int 24 24 24 24 24 24 24 24 24 24 ...
 $ const : int 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 ...
 $ teachpop: int 7 7 6 6 7 7 7 7 7 6 ...
```

We start by identifying the variables according to the variable type and hierarchical type (Table 5).

Table 5: Types of variables in the popmis data

Variable	Variable Type	Hierarchical Type
pupil	ID	Sample unit
school	ID	Cluster
popular	continuous	Level-1
sex	binary	Level-1
texp	continuous	Level-2
teachpop	continuous	Level-1

We then ensure that R recognizes which variables are factor and binary variables, in this case we include the sex variable as a factor.

```
popmis$sex <- as.factor(popmis$sex)
```

Then to explore the missingness, we should look at the missing data pattern. With the **ggmice** function `plot_pattern`, we can visualize the missing data pattern, which shows that the missingness is univariate, as only the outcome variable is missing (Figure ??).

```
plot_pattern(popmis, rotate=T, cluster="school")
```

Given that the main analysis will use a hierarchical model, and there are no additional predictor variables (plausible auxiliary variables) included in the dataset, in this case, the multiple imputation step will not be required, as the hierarchical model is robust to missingness when only the outcome is incomplete [Molenberghs and Kenward \(2007\)](#).

But for illustration purpose, we ampute some of the predictor variables (see the `ampute.popmis` function in the Annex) and save the new incomplete data as the ‘dat’ object and proceed with the multiple imputation working flow.

```
popmis_amputed <- ampute.popmis(popmis)
```

```
plot_pattern(popmis_amputed, rotate = TRUE, cluster = "school")
```

The missing pattern in this dataset is depicted in Figure 11. Here we observe that the first two missingness patterns are present in all the clusters (i.e., schools), as indicated by the strong opacity, while the other patterns are only present in some schools, as they are more transparent. Then, we examine whether the missingness is systematic or sporadic in the incomplete variables. To do this, we can check the percentage of missing values in the outcome variable across the clusters.

To develop an imputation model for the incomplete variable `popular`, we may check the association between the observed values of the target variable (in this case ‘popular’) and the values of other predictor variables and confirm if the hierarchical structure considered in the main model is plausible (in this case a random slope on the `teachpop` variable). We can plot the association between `popular` and teacher popularity across the schools using observable data as follows:

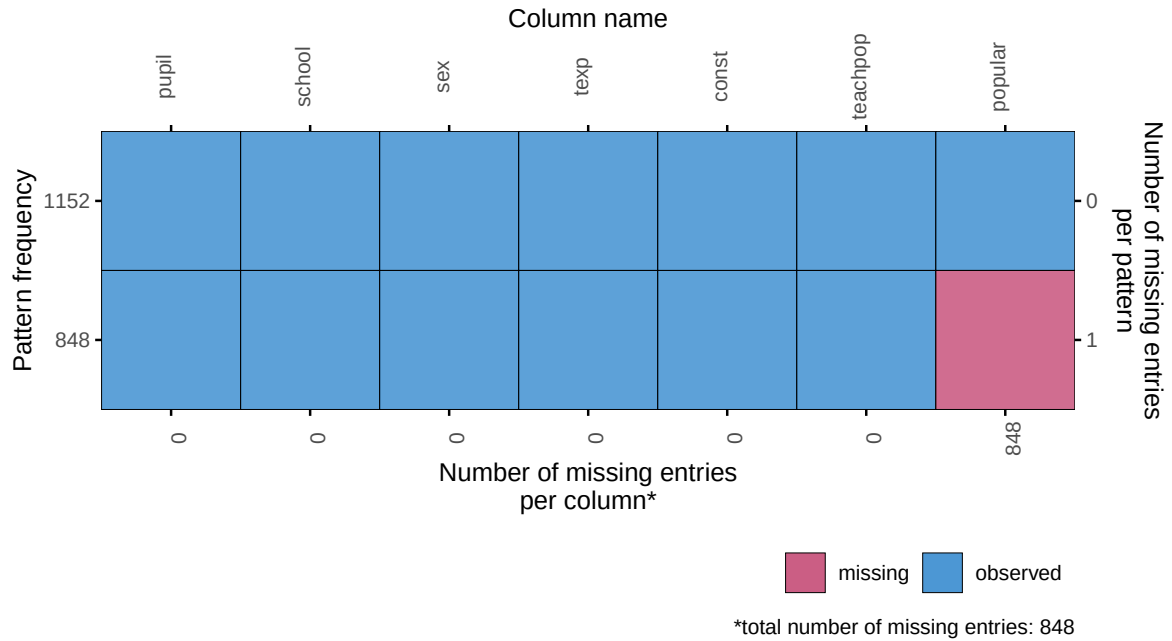


Figure 10: Missingness pattern in the popularity dataset

```
ggplot(data = popmis_amputed,
  aes(x = teachpop, y = popular, col = school, group = school)) +
  geom_point(size=0.5, alpha=0.7, position="jitter") +
  theme_classic()+
  theme(legend.position="none")+
  scale_color_gradientn(colours = rainbow(100))+
  geom_smooth(method=lm, se=FALSE, linewidth=.5, alpha=.7)
```

Figure 13 shows that the effect of teacher popularity on the student popularity varies across the clusters, justifying the use of the random slope.

In addition, the estimated ICC of 0.25 in the complete dataset suggests that some variability in the data can be attributed to the cluster structure. Hence, a hierarchical model is required for both the main analysis and the imputation model to ensure congeniality.

```
mod_cc <- nlme::lme(popular ~ sex + teachpop + texp + teachpop:texp,
  random = ~ 1 + teachpop| school,
  data = popmis_amputed|>filter(complete.cases(popmis_amputed)),
  na.action = na.exclude)

performance::icc(mod_cc)
```

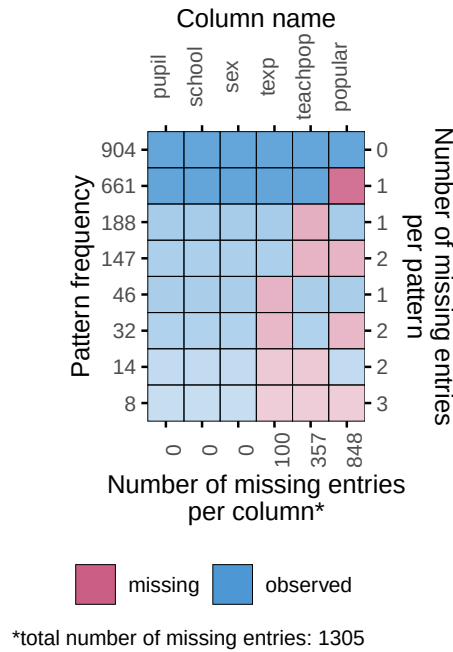


Figure 11: Missingness pattern in the amputed popularity dataset

Intraclass Correlation Coefficient

Adjusted ICC: 0.250
Unadjusted ICC: 0.122

The association between incomplete variables and the predictors, for instance popularity and teacher experience, can be also visualized with **ggmice**. We can see the distribution of the teacher experience for cases where **popular** is observed and cases where **popular** is missing. It appears that students with a missing value for **popular** are in clusters with a slightly higher **texp** value (Figure 14).

```
ggmice(popmis_amputed, aes(texp)) +
  geom_density() +
  facet_wrap(~is.na(popular))
```

Finally, we need to prepare the dataset to be imputed, saved here as **dati**. As the main model includes a **texp*teachpop** interaction, we need to explicitly add the **teachpop.texp** variable into the dataset without specifying any value.

```
popmis_amputed$teachpop.texp <- NA
```

Imputation

As before, we create the method vector with the **make.method** function.

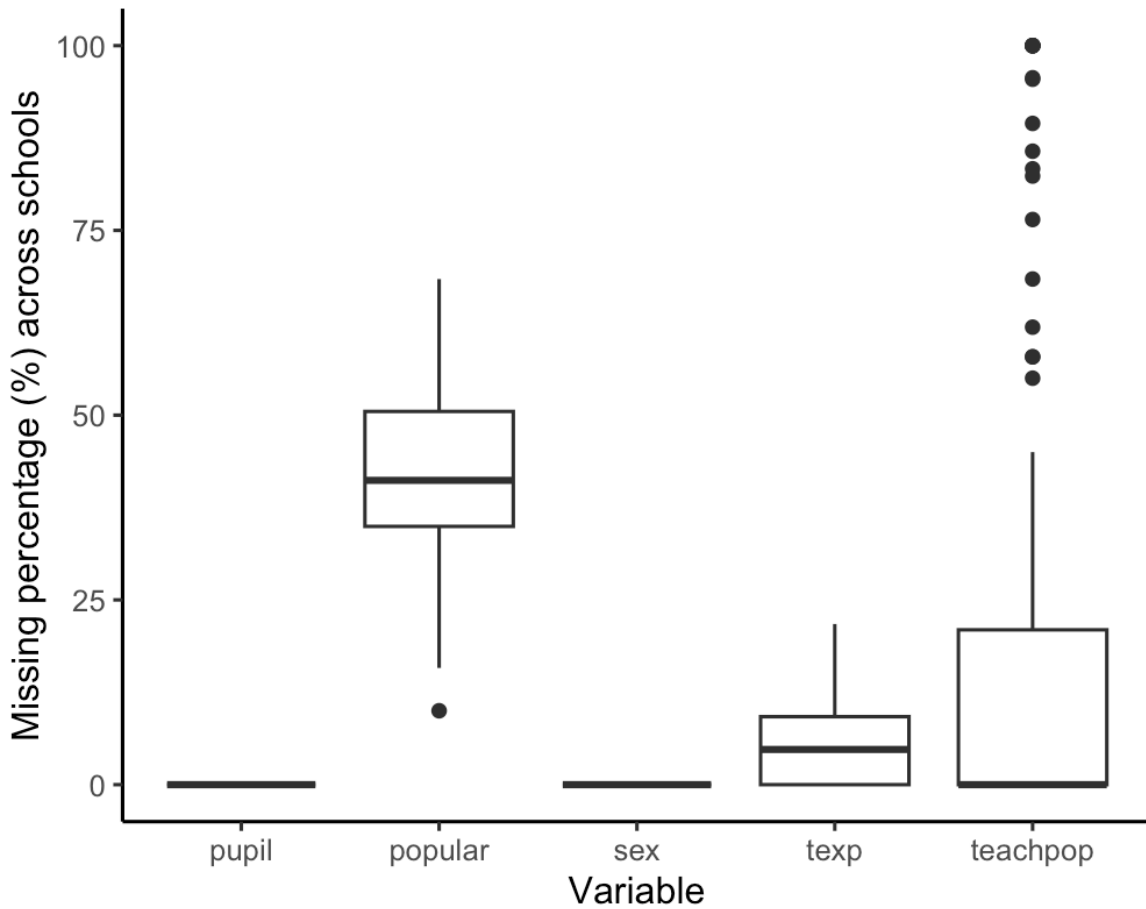


Figure 12: Missingness percentages per variable across the clusters

```
meth <- mice::make.method(popmis_amputed)
meth
```

```

      pupil      school      popular      sex      texp
      ""          ""          "pmm"      ""          "pmm"
teachpop teachpop.texp
      "pmm"      "logreg"
```

This function suggests imputing all the incomplete variables using the predictive mean matching method (pmm), except for the interaction term ‘teachpop.texp’. However, this function does not support 2l.methods yet. Therefore, manual modification of the methods is necessary. For the level-1 variables (popular, teachpop), we can use the ‘2l.pmm’ method from the `miceadds` package. For the level-2 variable (texp), the ‘2lonly.mean’ method can be applied due to sporadic missingness within clusters. Finally, for the ‘teachpop.texp’ variable, specifying the interaction can be achieved using the I notation as follows:

```
library("miceadds")
```

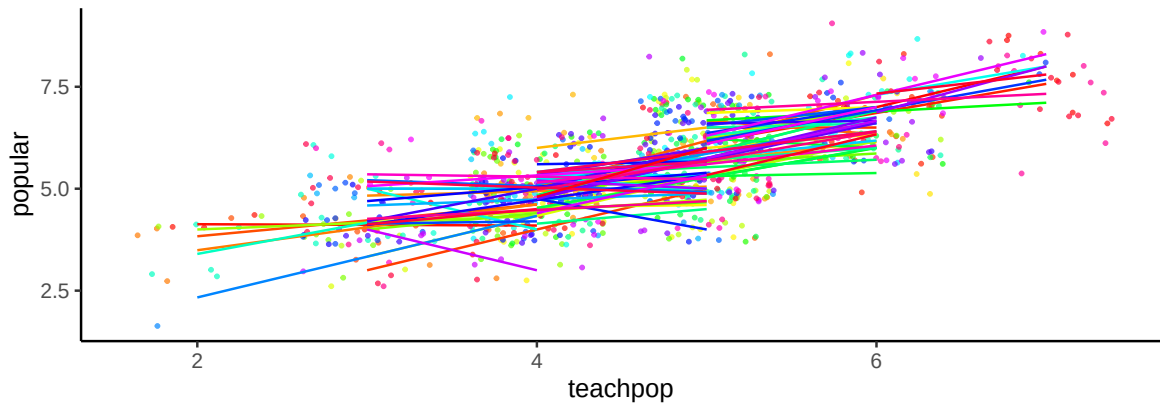


Figure 13: Association of popular and teacher popularity across clusters

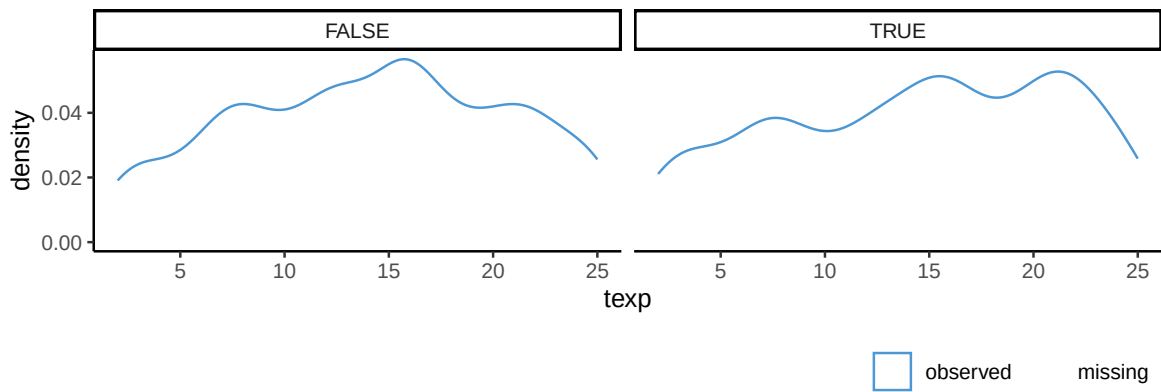


Figure 14: Density plot teacher experience according to the missingness of popular variable

```
meth[c("popular","teachpop")] <- "2l.pmm"
meth["texp"] <- "2lonly.mean"
meth[c("teachpop.texp")] <- "I(teachpop*texp)"
```

Next, we need to set the prediction matrix. Here we follow the recipes for hierarchical datasets provided by [Van Buuren \(2018\)](#) (§§7.10) as the main model involves interaction at different levels. Therefore, we start by creating a predictor matrix using the `make.predictor()` function. Initially, we will set a blank matrix where no predictor is assigned in any of the prediction models (denoted as prediction code = 0, see Box ??). Then we proceed to specify the cluster variable (prediction code = -2) across all the imputation models.

```
pred <- make.predictorMatrix(popmis_amputed)
pred[,] <- 0
pred[, "school"] <- -2
```

We define the imputation model of the outcome using the main model. Specifically, we include the 'texp' level-2 variable as a fixed effect (prediction code = 1). The 'sex' variable is also

included as a fixed effect in the main model. As suggested by recipes (Van Buuren (2018)), include the group mean of the variable (prediction code = 3) to avoid convergence problems. Additionally, we include the ‘teachpop’ variable, which requires a random slope in the main model, along with its group mean (prediction code = 4). Finally, we add the cross-interaction term as a fixed effect (prediction code = 1).

```
pred["popular",c("sex","texp","teachpop","teachpop.texp")] <- c(3,1,4,1)
```

The imputation model of the interaction terms is specified with the variables used for its deterministic imputation:

```
pred["teachpop.texp",c("texp","teachpop")] <- c(1,1)
```

Additionally, we define the imputation model for other incomplete variables by incorporating the group mean and avoiding circular dependencies. For example, we refrain from including predictor variables in the imputation model that were deterministically imputed with the incomplete variable under consideration. In essence, we avoid using interaction terms such as `teachpop.texp` in the imputation model for `teachpop`, as they are defined by the same variable.

```
pred["teachpop", c("popular","sex","texp")] <- c(4,3,1)
pred["texp", c("popular","sex","teachpop")] <- c(4,3,4)
```

Following the recipes, we should also include the interaction between the group mean of `teachpop` and `texp`. However, when we tried this, convergence issues became evident, as indicated by the trace plot (not shown). Consequently, we decided to exclude this interaction term from the imputation model.

We can visualize the adjustments in the imputation methods and predictors by means of the `plot_pred ggmlmice` function (Figure 15).

```
plot_pred(pred, method = meth, rotate = TRUE)
```

Finally, we proceed to run the imputation in `mice`, using as order of imputation the order of the incomplete variables according to percentage of missingness.

```
imp_popmis <- mice(data = popmis_amputed,
  method = meth,
  predictorMatrix = pred,
  visit = c("texp","teachpop","teachpop.texp","popular"),
  printFlag = FALSE)
```

```
boundary (singular) fit: see help('isSingular')
boundary (singular) fit: see help('isSingular')
boundary (singular) fit: see help('isSingular')
```

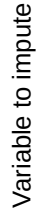


Figure 15: Imputation predictor matrix for the popularity dataset

[illegible]

Warning: Number of logged events: 1

Now we need to check the convergence of the imputation procedure. This can be done, for instance, by examining the trace plots. The trace plot (Figure 16) does not reveal any convergence problems, as no discernible patterns are observed in the mean and standard deviation of the popularity variable.

```
plot_trace(imp_popmis)
```

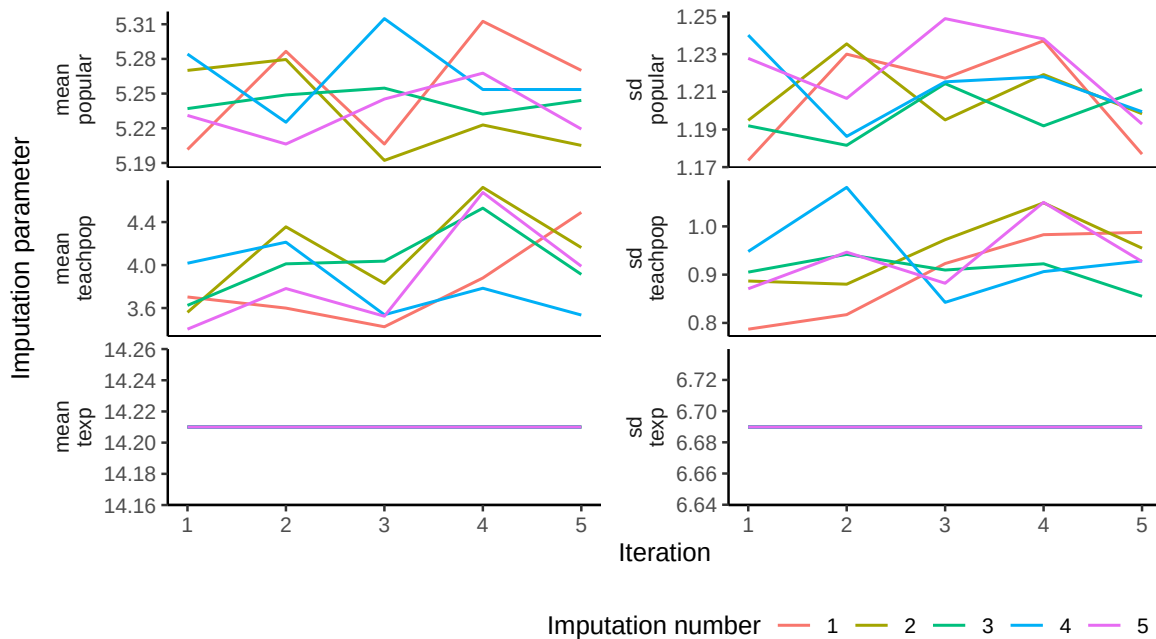


Figure 16: Trace plot of imputed popularity dataset

We can also evaluate the distribution of the imputed values and compare it to the distribution of the observed values as follows, where we observe that imputed values are in line with the observed ones (Figure 17):

```
ggmice(imp_popmis,
  aes(popular, group = .imp)) +
  geom_density()
```

Finally, we can estimate the main analysis model on the imputed datasets, by simply passing the mice output object (imp_popmis) to the **lme** function from the **nlme** package using the **with** function.

```
fit_popmis <- with(imp_popmis,
  nlme::lme(popular ~ sex + teachpop + texp + teachpop:texp,
    random = ~ 1 + teachpop | school))
```

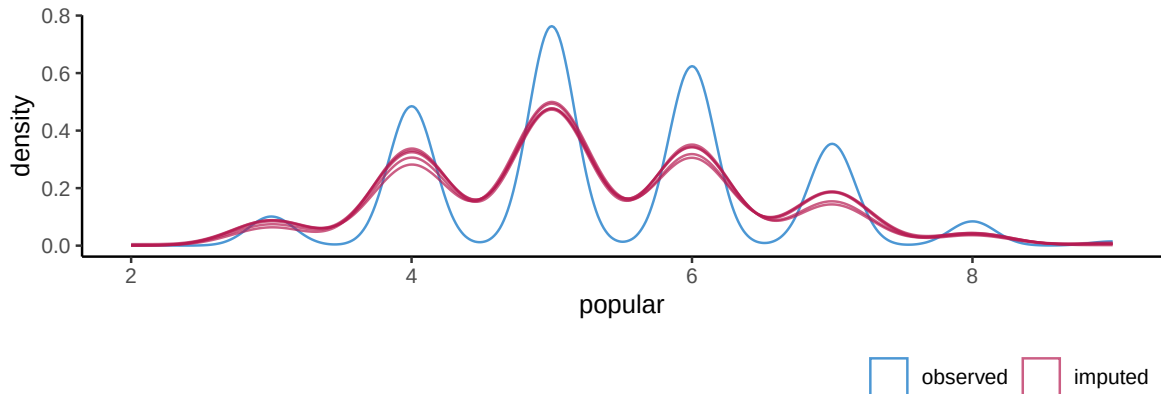


Figure 17: Density plot of imputed popularity values

We can pool the results using the `pool` function from the **broom.mixed** package. However, this option only allows pooling of coefficients (parameters of fixed effects). Alternatively, we can utilize the `testEstimates` function from the **mitml** package, which enables pooling not only from coefficients, but also from variances of the random effects, as follows:

```
library("mitml")
est_popmis <- testEstimates(as.mitml.result(fit_popmis),
                           extra.pars = TRUE)
```

The fixed coefficients can be extracted directly with the `estimates` parameter:

```
library("knitr")
est_popmis$estimates |>
  round(3) |>
  kable()
```

	Estimate	Std.Error	t.value	df	P(> t)	RIV	FMI
(Intercept)	2.926	0.312	9.377	197.350	0.000	0.166	0.151
sex1	0.771	0.054	14.283	8.995	0.000	2.002	0.722
teachpop	0.238	0.068	3.503	168.435	0.001	0.182	0.164
texp	0.032	0.024	1.370	53.746	0.176	0.375	0.298
teachpop:texp	0.007	0.004	1.636	591.775	0.102	0.090	0.085

and the variances of the model with the `extra.pars` parameter. This provides the estimates for the variance of the random intercept, variance of the random slope of the `teachpop` variable, the covariance between the intercept and random slope, and the ICC, respectively, as follows:

```
est_popmis$extra.pars |>
  round(3) |>
  kable()
```

	Estimate
Intercept~~Intercept school	0.476
teachpop~~teachpop school	0.016
Intercept~~teachpop school	-0.064
Residual~~Residual	0.446
ICC school	0.490

4.3. Illustration of 2-stage imputation in the Obesity data

In the third case study, we demonstrate a multilevel imputation using a random intercept and random slope model by using the 2-stage 2L imputation methods, where separate imputation models are fitted across the clusters and then combined using meta-analysis techniques.

We employ the obesity dataset included in the **micemd** package, a simulated dataset that emulates an electronic survey in which individuals are asked to provide information about their weight and consumption habits in different countries. We use the following variables from the dataset:

- **Cluster**: region of the patients' healthcare provider,
- **Gender**: subjects' Gender (0=male, 1=female),
- **Age**: subjects' age,
- **Height**: subjects' height in metres,
- **Weight**: subjects' weight in kilograms,
- **BMI**: subjects' body mass index,
- **FamOb**: family obesity history (yes or no),
- **Time**: response time in minutes (exclusion-restriction variable).

In this dataset, **Age** and **FamOb** are MAR, while the **Weight** variable is affected by selection bias, which we assume to be caused by an indirect MNAR mechanism. This MNAR mechanism typically arises when an unobserved or omitted variable influences both the value of the incomplete variable (in this case, **Weight**) and its likelihood of being missing.

In the main analysis model, BMI serves as the dependent variable, with **Age**, **Gender**, and **FamOb** as predictors. Because of the clustered nature of the data, we include random intercepts, as well as random slopes for the **Age** variable. Therefore, the model for the i -th region and the j -th subject is represented as:

$$BMI_{ij} = (\beta_0 + b_{0j}) + (\beta_1 + b_{1j}) * Age_{ij} + \beta_2 * FamOb_{ij} + \beta_3 Gender_{ij} + \epsilon_{ij} \quad (1)$$

where β_0 , β_1 , β_2 , and β_3 are the fixed effects, b_{0i} and b_{1i} are the random intercept and age slope effects distributed as $\begin{bmatrix} b_0 \\ b_1 \end{bmatrix} \sim N \left(\begin{bmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \begin{bmatrix} \tau_0^2 & \rho\tau_0\tau_1 \\ \rho\tau_0\tau_1 & \tau_1^2 \end{bmatrix} \right)$, where we denote τ_0^2 and τ_1^2 for the intercept and slope variances and ρ the correlation of the random effects. The error term ϵ_{ij} is normally distributed as $\epsilon_{ij} \sim N(0, \sigma^2)$, with variance σ^2 .

Table 8: Variable types of the Obesity data

Variable	Variable Type	Hierarchical Type	Model type
*	Subject ID	Sample unit	Auxiliary
Cluster	ID	Cluster	Essential
Gender	binary	Level-1	Essential
FamOb	continuous	Level-1	Essential
Age	continuous	Level-1	Essential
Weight	continuous	Level-1	Essential
Height	continuous	Level-1	Essential
Time	continuous	Level-1	Auxiliary

*Not included in the data, but included in this table for clarity.

Pre-imputation

We start by loading the data and check the structure.

```
data(Obesity, package = "micemd")
Obesity <- as.data.frame(Obesity)
str(Obesity)

'data.frame': 2111 obs. of 8 variables:
 $ Cluster: int 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 1 ...
 $ Time : num 5.54 3.09 5.74 1.99 3.74 ...
 $ Gender : Factor w/ 2 levels "Female","Male": 1 1 2 1 1 1 1 2 1 2 ...
 $ Height : num 1.69 1.77 1.6 1.68 1.75 ...
 $ FamOb : Factor w/ 2 levels "no","yes": 2 2 2 2 2 1 1 2 2 2 ...
 $ Age : num 20 29 30 24 26 18 27 20 29 19 ...
 $ Weight : num 109.9 100.1 95.7 94.5 101.2 ...
 $ BMI : num 38.4 32 37.3 33.5 33 ...
 - attr(*, ".internal.selfref")=<externalptr>
```

We then classify each variable according to variable type, hierarchical type and if they are essential in the model (Table ??). Weight and Height are considered essential even when they are not formally included in the model as BMI is deterministically obtained from them.

Next, we examine the observable data and evaluate the ICC on the complete observations.

```
mod_cc <- with(Obesity|>filter(complete.cases(Obesity)),
              nlme::lme(BMI ~ Age + FamOb + Gender,
                        random = ~ 1 + Age | Cluster))
performance::icc(mod_cc)

# Intraclass Correlation Coefficient
```

Adjusted ICC: 0.383
 Unadjusted ICC: 0.374

The estimated ICC equals 0.383, which suggests that we require of a imputation method that accounts for clustering.

By plotting BMI against Age (see Figure 18). From the plot, it is evident that incorporating a random slope for Age might be beneficial for the main model and the imputation model.

```
ggplot(data = Obesity,
       aes(x = Age, y = BMI, col = Cluster, group = Cluster)) +
  geom_point(size=0.5, alpha=0.7, position="jitter") +
  theme_classic()+
  scale_color_gradientn(colours = rainbow(5))+
  geom_smooth(method=lm, se=FALSE, size=.5, alpha=.7)+
  facet_grid(~Cluster )+
  theme(legend.position="none")
```

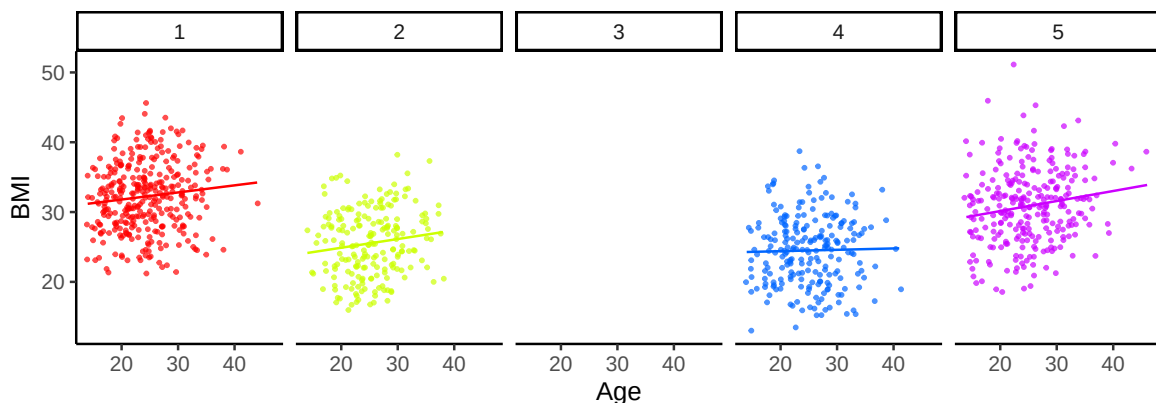


Figure 18: BMI vs Age in the observed data of the Obesity dataset

Now, let's examine the missingness patterns and the missingness percentage in the data by cluster:

```
plot_pattern(Obesity, rotate = T, cluster = "Cluster")
```

```
Obesity|>
  group_by(Cluster)|>
  dplyr::summarize(across(everything(),~ (sum(is.na(.))*100/
    length(.))))|>
  tibble::column_to_rownames(var = "Cluster")|>
  pheatmap::pheatmap(display_numbers = T,
    cluster_rows=FALSE, cluster_cols=FALSE)
```

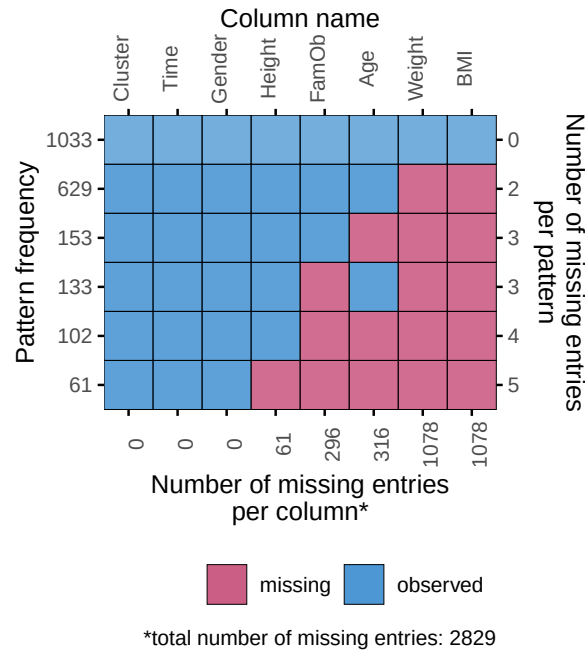


Figure 19: Missingness exploration in the obesity dataset: missingness pattern

We observe that the missingness pattern is non-monotonic and quite similar across the clusters. However, we notice that the **Weight** and **BMI** variables are systematically missing in cluster 3 (Figures 19 and 20).

Imputation

In this example, we opt to use the 2L imputation methods from the **micemd** package, which facilitate the imputation of incomplete variables under sporadic and systematic missingness. Within this package, various methods are available, including the 2L.stage methods [Audigier et al. \(2018\)](#), where model estimation is conducted in two stages.

This package provides the `find.defaultMethod` function, which recommends a suitable imputation method for MAR variables based on variable type, cluster size, and number of clusters. Here, we apply this function to provide an imputation method for all incomplete variables, including the cluster variable position in the dataset (`ind.clust = 1`) and using the function's default parameters.

```
library("micemd")
meth_mar <- find.defaultMethod(Obesity,
                               ind.clust = 1, I.small = 7,
                               ni.small = 100, prop.small = 0.4)
```

It suggests using '2l.2stage.bin' for the **FamOb** variable and '2l.2stage.norm' for the **Age** variable. However, upon inspecting the density plot for **Age**, we found the variable to be highly skewed, prompting us to consider modifying its method to '2l.2stage.pmm'. For the **BMI** variable, we employ deterministic imputation.

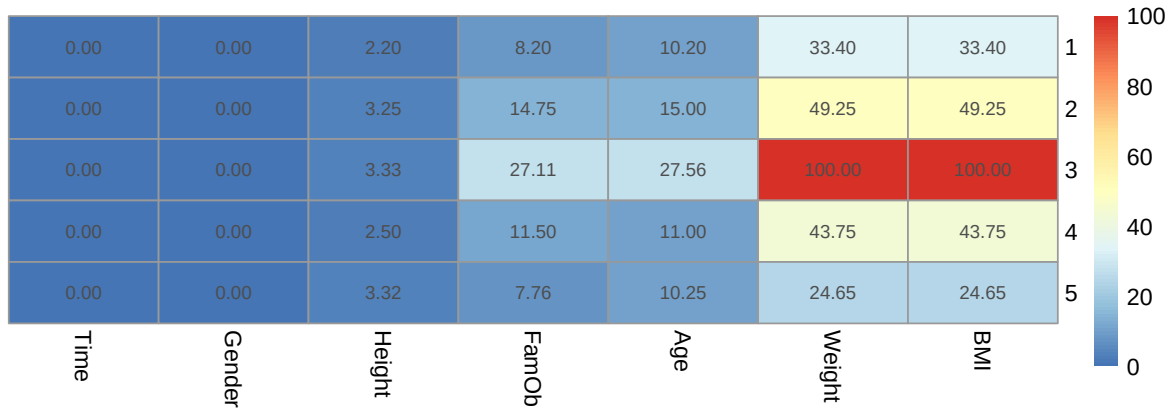


Figure 20: Missingness exploration in the obesity dataset: missingness percentage

```
meth_mar["Age"] <- "2l.2stage.pmm"
meth_mar["Weight"] <- "2l.2stage.pmm"
meth_mar["BMI"] <- "~I(Weight/(Height)^2)"
```

For these imputation methods, it is necessary to specify a prediction matrix, with the cluster variable labelled as -2. However, here the recipe that we used before is not longer necessary as these methods assume that all the imputation models contains also a random slope effect, so they use imputation Code 2 instead. We need to suppress the variable `Time` as this variable is not specified in the main model. We also modify the relationship between `BMI`, `Weight` and `Height` in the prediction matrix to avoid circularity issues.

```
pred_mar <- make.predictorMatrix(Obesity)
pred_mar[, "Time"] <- 0
pred_mar[, "Cluster"] <- -2
pred_mar[pred_mar == 1] <- 2
pred_mar[c("Height", "Weight"), "BMI"] <- 0
```

Then we proceed to run the imputation model, using as visit order the variables order according to their missing percentage.

```
imp_mar <- mice(data = Obesity,
  method = meth_mar,
  predictorMatrix = pred_mar,
  visit = c("Height", "FamOb", "Age", "Weight", "BMI"),
  printFlag = FALSE)
```

We consider the possibility that patients may not have been selected randomly, which would then have led to a distribution for weight that does not reflect the weight in the population. It's likely that an omitted variable, like self-esteem, could influence this selection. For example, individuals with lower self-esteem might have higher weight values, which would affect their willingness to provide honest information as they feel embarrassed.

To address this situation where data are missing not at random (MNAR), one approach is to apply the Heckman selection model [Muñoz *et al.* \(2023a\)](#). This method has recently been extended to allow for variations in intercepts and exposure effects (random intercept and slope) [Galimard, Chevret, Curis, and Resche-Rigon \(2018\)](#); [Muñoz, Hufstedler, Gustafson, Bärnighausen, De Jong, and Debray \(2023b\)](#). This method involves specifying two equations: one for the outcome, describing the incomplete variable in terms of partially observed predictors (in this case, all variables from the main model), and the other for the selection model, explaining the probability of being observed based (denoted here as R) on certain variables.

With this method, the `Weight` variable should be specified as `2l.2stage.heckman`.

```
meth_mnar <- meth_mar
meth_mnar["Weight"] <- "2l.2stage.heckman"
```

Additionally, the prediction matrix needs modification, as this model includes one submodel for the individuals' measured outcome, and one for the selection of individuals.

For the outcome equation we consider the same imputation model that we used for the MAR case (main model).

$$Weight_{ij} = \beta_o^O + \beta_1^O Age_{ij} + \beta_2^O FamOb_{ij} + \beta_3^O Gender_{ij} + \epsilon_{ij}^O$$

Regarding the selection equation, we include the same predictors as those in the main model, as well as a time variable. Here the time variable serves as a restriction exclusion variable specifically explaining the probability of being observed but not affecting the incomplete value (`Weight`). In this context, we assume that the time a user spends completing the survey serves as a proxy for the barriers they may encounter in survey completion, such as familiarity with the survey content or internet speed. These factors may lead the user to skip specific questions or even the entire survey. Also, we assume the time does not have any influence on the subject's weight.

$$R_{ij} = \beta_o^S + \beta_1^S Age_{ij} + \beta_2^S FamOb_{ij} + \beta_3^S Gender_{ij} + \beta_4^S Time_{ij} + \epsilon_{ij}^S$$

These two equations are jointly estimated under the assumption that the error terms are interconnected with a bivariate normal distribution. For a more comprehensive understanding of the model and the exclusion restriction, see [Muñoz *et al.* \(2023b\)](#).

To use information from both equations, we must adjust the prediction matrix. The cluster variable remains specified as before (-2). In this imputation method, all the variables present in both the selection and outcome equations are included with a random effect.

However, it is essential to distinguish which of these variables appear in each equation. In this framework, when a variable is shared between both equations, it is denoted as (2). Predictors exclusive to the outcome equation are indicated as (-4), while those exclusive to the selection equation are labelled as (-3). Consequently, the only alteration needed in the predictor matrix pertains to the variable `Time`. Predictor matrices of both scenarios (MAR and MNAR) are displayed in [Figure 21](#):

```

pred_mnar <- pred_mar
pred_mnar["Weight","Time"] <- -3

plot_pred(pred_mar, rotate = TRUE)
plot_pred(pred_mnar, rotate = TRUE)

```

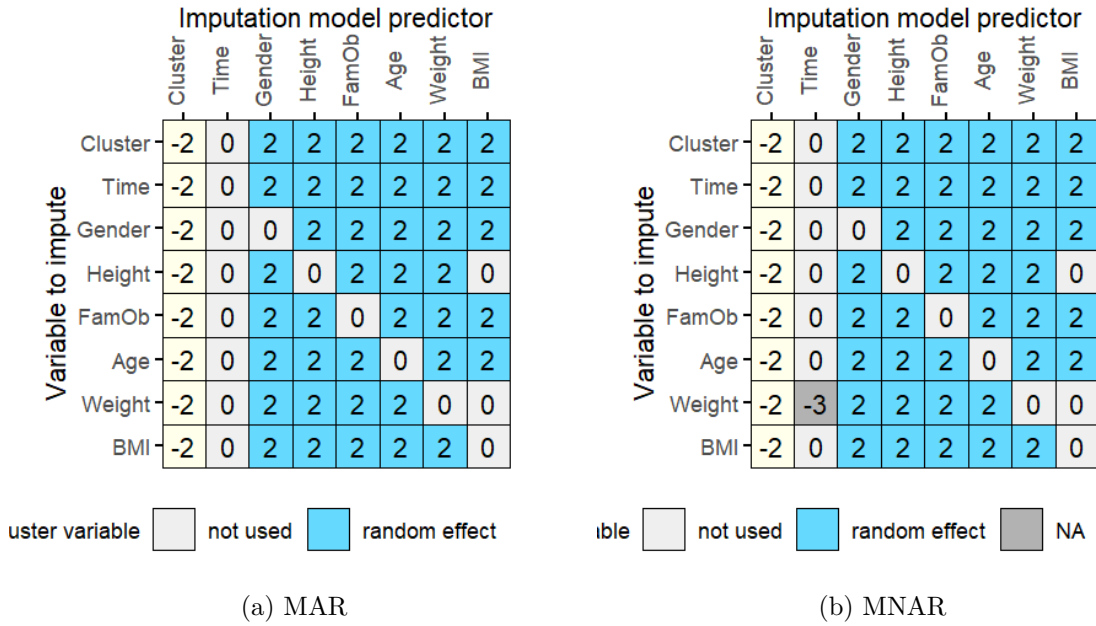


Figure 21: Predictor matrices for the MAR and MNAR imputation models in the Obesity dataset

As in the MAR assumption, we use the ‘pmm’ option but this time for the Heckman imputation. This approach ensures that the imputed values remain within the range of observable values. We then run the MNAR imputation model by setting the `pmm` parameter to true.

```

imp_mnar <- mice(data = Obesity,
  method = meth_mnar,
  predictorMatrix = pred_mnar,
  pmm = T,
  visit=c("Height","FamOb","Age","Weight","BMI"),
  printFlag = FALSE)

```

We check the convergence of the imputation models under the MAR and MNAR scenarios. Here we only display only the results for the MNAR scenario (Figure 22), but in none of them we found convergence problems.

```
ggmice::plot_trace(imp_mnar)
```

We proceed to compare the effects on the analysis model. We run the main analysis model on each of the imputed datasets as well as the dataset where the incomplete values are

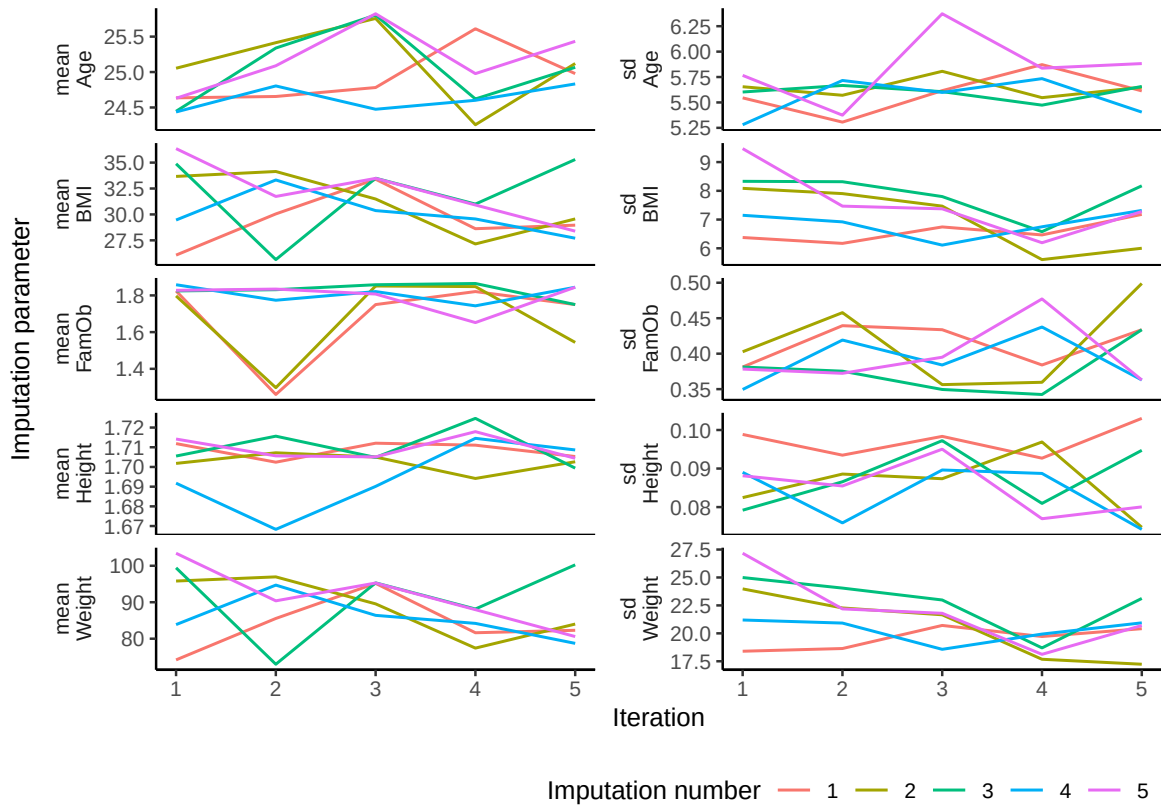


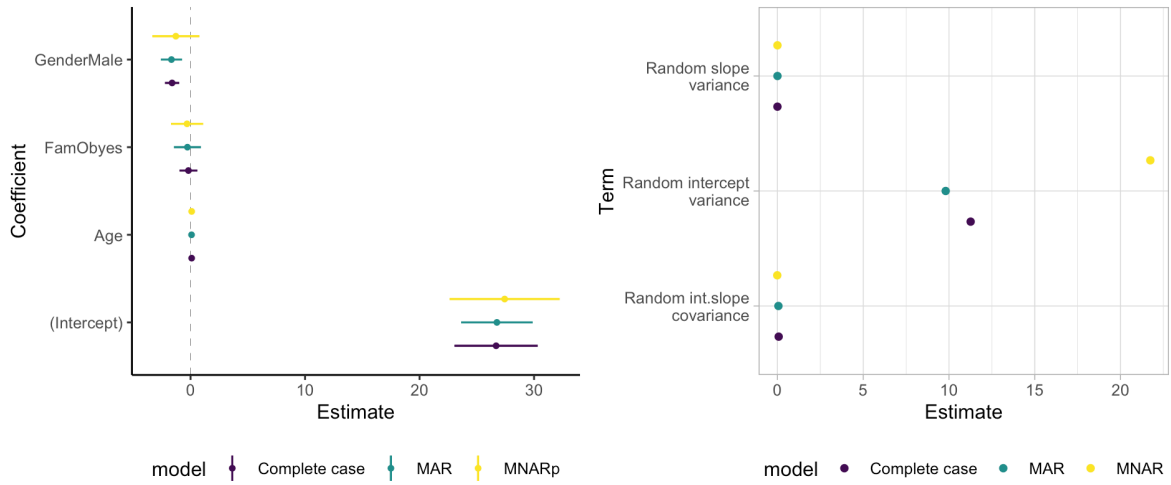
Figure 22: Trace plot for imputation under MNAR assumption

removed (Complete Case analysis, CC). Figure 23 shows the coefficient estimates along with the estimated variances of the random effects.

We observe minimal differences in the age effect, `FamObs`, across the various imputation models under consideration. However, we found that the effect of Gender becomes statistically non-significant under the MNAR assumption. By checking the intercept, we observe that under the missing not at random (MNAR) assumption, a higher average BMI is anticipated compared to under the missing at random (MAR) assumption. However, regarding the precision of the estimates, we notice that, in general, assuming MNAR leads to wider confidence intervals, and also larger variance of the random intercept compared to other scenarios.

5. Conclusion

In this paper we explored the imputation process for incomplete multilevel datasets, with a primary focus on utilizing a hierarchical model for analysis. We encourage users to consider insights provided by domain experts, to gain a better understanding of variable relationships and to choose the most appropriate imputation strategy to follow. This includes considerations of the (primary) research question and the corresponding data analysis, as the imputation strategy needs to be compatible with the data analysis. Employing clear data visualization is instrumental in comprehending the missing data patterns, investigating the likely missingness



(a) Estimated coefficients

(b) Variances of the random effects

Figure 23: Estimates of the main model in the Obesity dataset

mechanism, and aiding in the selection of suitable imputation methods.

The **mice** and **mice**-based R packages offer a range of imputation methods tailored for hierarchical data, easily adaptable to the dataset's structure. Before proceeding with the analysis of the imputed dataset, it is essential to assess the convergence of the imputation method. This evaluation can reveal issues such as circular dependencies, the need for additional iterations, or challenges associated with the chosen imputation method.

Disclaimer

The views expressed in this paper are the personal views of the authors and may not be understood or quoted as being made on behalf of or reflecting the position of the regulatory agency/agencies or organizations with which the authors are employed/affiliated.

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6. Appendix

6.1. Imputation strategies used in the analyses of the impact dataset

Cluster indicator

```
meth <- mice::make.method(dati)
pred <- mice::make.predictorMatrix(dati)
pred.ci <- pred
pred.ci[,c("id","type")]<-0
plot_pred(pred.ci, method = meth, rotate = TRUE)

visit <- c("pupil","hypots","tsah","edh","hypox","ct")
impcind <- mice(dati, pred = pred.ci, meth =meth, visit=visit)
ggmice::plot_trace(impcind)
```

Hierarchical imputation method

```
dati_h <- dati|> mutate(name = as.integer(name))
levels(dati_h$motor_score)
meth.h <- meth
meth.h[meth.h== "polyreg"] <- "2l.pmm"
meth.h[meth.h== "logreg"] <- "2l.bin"
pred.h <- pred
pred.h[pred.h == 1] <- 3 # we add cluster mean to level-1 variables
pred.h[, "id"]<-0
pred.h[, "name"] <- -2
pred.h[, "type"] <- 1 # we set level-2 type as a simple predictor (no mean)
plot_pred(pred.h, method = meth.h, rotate = TRUE)
visit <- c("pupil","hypots","tsah","edh","hypox","ct")
imphm <- mice(dati_h, pred = pred.h, meth = meth.h, visit = visit)
ggmice::plot_trace(himpimp)
# Backtransform the cluster variable
imphm <- complete(imphm, action='long', include=TRUE)
imphm$name <- as.factor(imphm$name)
levels(imphm$name)<-levels(dati$name)
imphm<-as.mids(imphm)
```

Separate imputations

```
library(purrr)
```

```

pred.sep <- pred
pred.sep[,c("id","type","name")]<-0
plot_pred(pred.sep, method = meth, rotate = TRUE)
study_imp <- dati |>
  split(dati$name) |>
  purrr::map(~ mice(.x, pred=pred.sep,meth=meth,visit=visit))
names(study_imp) <- NULL
impsep<-study_imp[[1]]
for(i in 2:length(study_imp)){
  impsep <- mice::rbind(impsep,study_imp[[i]])
}

ggmice::plot_trace(impsep)

```

Analysis on output of each strategy

```

# Save all datasets in a list
list_data <- list(dati|> filter(complete.cases(dati)), # complete case
                 impcind, # imputed with cluster indicator
                 imphm, # imputed with hierarchical model
                 impsep) # imputation separated by cluster
# Run mixed model on each dataset
list_models <- lapply(list_data,
  FUN = function(x)
    with(x,lme4::glmer(mort ~ type + age + motor_score + pupil + ct
      + (1|name),
      family = binomial)))
# Plot models coefficients
plot_models(list_models,
  mod_name = c("Complete case",
    "Cluster indicator",
    "Hierarchical imputation",
    "Separate imputations"))

```

6.2. Additional functions used in the analyses

Visualize missing data (syst. vs. spor.)

```

function ()
{
  dat <- cbind(expand.grid(rows = 1:7, cols = 1:6), text = c("1",
    "1", "2", "2", "3", "", "N", rep("", 35)), miss = c(rep("",
    16), "NA", "NA", "", "", "", "NA", "", "", "NA", rep("",

```

```

17)))
ggplot(dat, aes(x = cols, y = rows)) + geom_tile(fill = "white",
  color = "black", linewidth = 0.5) + geom_text(aes(label = text),
  color = "black", size = 3) + geom_text(aes(label = miss),
  color = mice::mdc(2), family = "mono", fontface = "bold") +
  scale_x_continuous(breaks = 1:6, labels = c("cluster",
    expression(X[1]), expression(X[2]), expression(X[3]),
    "...", expression(X[p])), name = NULL, position = "top") +
  scale_y_continuous(breaks = 1:7, labels = c(1:5, "...",
    "n"), name = NULL, trans = "reverse") + theme_minimal() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank(), plot.margin = unit(c(0,
    0, 0, 0), "pt"))
}
<bytecode: 0x000001a5dbe40860>

```

Introduce more missingness to the popmis data

```

function (dat)
{
  set.seed(1234)
  dat$prob <- 1 - plogis(-5 + 0.3 * (dat$sex == 1) + 0.7 *
    dat$teexp)
  dat$teachpop <- ifelse(rbinom(nrow(dat), 1, dat$prob), NA,
    dat$teachpop)
  dat$teexp[sample(1:nrow(dat), 0.05 * nrow(dat))] <- NA
  dat$prob <- NULL
  dat$const <- NULL
  return(dat)
}
<bytecode: 0x000001a5e8f850e0>

```

Plot coefficients of an nlme model

```

function (list_models, mod_name)
{
  library(insight)
  library(tidyverse)
  library(broom.mixed)
  library(mitml)
  mod_table <- var_table <- NULL
  for (i in 1:length(list_models)) {
    mod <- list_models[[i]]
    if (class(mod)[1] == "mira") {
      mod_tab <- summary(pool(mod), conf.int = TRUE)[,

```

```

      c("term", "estimate", "2.5 %", "97.5 %", "p.value")]
mitval <- data.frame(testEstimates(as.mitml.result(mod),
  extra.pars = TRUE)[["extra.pars"]])
names_var <- rownames(mitval)
varitable <- data.frame(Term = character(0), Value = numeric(0))
if (length(names_var[grepl("^ (Residual~~Residual)",
  names_var)]) != 0) {
  varitable <- add_row(varitable, Term = "Residual variance",
    Value = estim[grepl("^ (Residual~~Residual)",
      names_var)])
}
if (length(names_var[grepl("^ (Intercept~~Intercept)",
  names_var)]) != 0) {
  varitable <- add_row(varitable, Term = "Random intercept\nvariance",
    Value = estim[grepl("^ (Intercept~~Intercept)",
      names_var)])
}
if (length(names_var[grepl("^ (Intercept~~Slope)",
  names_var)]) != 0) {
  varitable <- add_row(varitable, Term = paste0("Random slope\nvariance ",
    sub(".*\\|", "", names_var[grepl("^ (Intercept~~Intercept)",
      names_var)])), Value = estim[grepl("^ (Intercept~~Slope)",
      names_var)])
}
if (length(names_var[grepl("^ (Slope~~Slope)", names_var)]) !=
  0) {
  varitable <- add_row(varitable, Term = paste0("Random slope-intercept correl
    sub(".*\\|", "", names_var[grepl("^ (Slope~~Slope)",
      names_var)])), Value = estim[grepl("^ (Slope~~Slope)",
      names_var)])
}
if ((length(names_var[grepl("^ (ICC)", names_var)]) !=
  0)) {
  varitable <- add_row(varitable, Term = "ICC", Value = estim[grepl("^ (ICC)",
    names_var)])
}
}
else {
  mod_tab <- tidy(mod, effects = "fixed", conf.int = TRUE)
  mod_tab <- mod_tab[, c("term", "estimate", "conf.low",
    "conf.high", "p.value")]
  rownames(mod_tab) <- NULL
  varcomp <- insight::get_variance(mod)
  varitable <- data.frame(Term = "Residual variance",
    Value = as.numeric(varcomp$var.residual))
  if (!is.null(varcomp$var.intercept)) {
    varitable <- add_row(varitable, Term = "Random intercept\nvariance",

```

```

      Value = as.numeric(varcomp$var.intercept))
    }
    if (!is.null(varcomp$var.var.slope)) {
      vartable <- add_row(vartable, Term = paste0("Random slope var",
        attr(varcomp$var.slope, "names")), Value = as.numeric(varcomp$var.intercept))
    }
    if (!is.null(varcomp$cor.slope_intercept)) {
      vartable <- add_row(vartable, Term = paste0("Random slope-intercept corr",
        attr(varcomp$cor.slope_intercept, "names")),
        Value = as.numeric(varcomp$cor.slope_intercept))
    }
    if (!is.null(varcomp$var.intercept)) {
      vartable <- add_row(vartable, Term = "ICC", Value = as.numeric(varcomp$var.intercept) -
        as.numeric(varcomp$var.residual)))
    }
  }
  colnames(mod_tab) <- c("Coefficient", "Estimate", "lower",
    "upper", "p.value")
  mod_tab$model <- mod_name[i]
  mod_table <- rbind(mod_table, mod_tab)
  vartable$model <- mod_name[i]
  var_table <- rbind(var_table, vartable)
}

plot_coef <- ggplot(mod_table, aes(x = Coefficient, y = Estimate,
  ymin = lower, ymax = upper, group = model, color = model)) +
  geom_hline(yintercept = 0, linetype = "dashed", color = "black",
    size = 0.1) + geom_linerange(position = position_dodge(width = 0.8)) +
  geom_pointrange(size = 0.1, position = position_dodge(width = 0.8)) +
  coord_flip() + theme_classic() + theme(legend.position = "bottom")
+scale_color_viridis_d()
if (randisplay == T) {
  var_table <- filter(var_table, str_detect(Term, "^Random"))
}

plot_var <- ggplot(var_table, aes(x = Term, y = Value, fill = model)) +
  geom_bar(stat = "identity", position = "dodge") + coord_flip() +
  scale_fill_viridis_d() + xlab("Term") + ylab("Estimate") +
  theme_light() + theme(legend.position = "bottom")
return(list(plot_coef, plot_var))
}

```

Notes from JSS

Appendices can be included after the bibliography (with a page break). Each section within the appendix should have a proper section title (rather than just *Appendix*). For more technical style details, please check out JSS's style FAQ at [<https://www.jstatsoft.org/pages/view/style#frequently-asked-questions>] which includes the following topics:

- Title vs. sentence case.
- Graphics formatting.
- Naming conventions.
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- Many other potentially helpful details...

Using BibTeX

References need to be provided in a BibTeX file (`.bib`). All references should be made with `@cite` syntax. This commands yield different formats of author-year citations and allow to include additional details (e.g., pages, chapters, ...) in brackets. In case you are not familiar with these commands see the JSS style FAQ for details.

Cleaning up BibTeX files is a somewhat tedious task – especially when acquiring the entries automatically from mixed online sources. However, it is important that informations are complete and presented in a consistent style to avoid confusions. JSS requires the following format.

- item JSS-specific markup (`\proglang`, `\pkg`, `\code`) should be used in the references.
- item Titles should be in title case.
- item Journal titles should not be abbreviated and in title case.
- item DOIs should be included where available.
- item Software should be properly cited as well. For R packages `citation("pkgname")` typically provides a good starting point.

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